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Per-Field Categorical G-Code Recoverability from Multi-Modal Sensor Embeddings on a Desktop CNC Mill: A Single-Platform Characterization Study

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Abstract: A cyber-physical attack can alter the G-code a CNC controller executes without altering the loaded file — a hash-invisible forgery. We characterize **per-field categorical recoverability** of G-code from a 4 Hz seven-modality sensor stream on a Bantam Tools desktop mill (TRL 4), using a grammar-constrained six-head Transformer decoder over a frozen denoising encoder under five-fold file-level cross-validation. Categorical fields are recoverable: above the operation-class modal predictor the decoder adds a +22 pp within-class command increment — a 4-of-5-fold effect (near-zero on one covariate-shift outlier) that we report as an *upper* bound on sensor-driven recovery, robust to conditioning the null on operation class; the categorical heads (command, parameter-type, sign) are teacher-forced/autoregressive invariant (~ 0.89 command). Generative reconstruction is not: token accuracy falls $0.78 \rightarrow 0.21$ and digit $0.59 \rightarrow 0.10$ under autoregression (whole-sequence exact-match 0.026) by mode-collapse, with 77.7% of blocks ≤ 1 sample period, and command recovery collapses to 0.213 on an open-vocabulary leave-one-class-out holdout. We thus reserve “recovery” for categorical fields; coordinate reconstruction is unsupported (ceiling set by source entropy and a sub-Nyquist floor; companion paper). Tamper points are **illustrative, prior-dominated, not a validated detector**; the posture is forensic-support post-hoc audit, not a real-time IDS, single-platform and closed-world.

Keywords: CNC machining; G-code reconstruction; multi-modal sensor fusion; manufacturing cybersecurity; tamper detection; grammar-constrained inference; forensic audit

1. Introduction

A modern Computer Numerical Control (CNC) milling machine is a tightly choreographed system: motors drive a cutting tool along multi-axis toolpaths specified by a G-code program, with tolerances measured in micrometers. Every cut leaves a multi-modal sensor signature — vibration through the machine frame, acoustic emission, motor-current draw, ambient temperature and illumination — that is in principle informative about the instruction stream that produced it. Whether that signature is informative enough to *recover* the instruction stream line by line, without access to the controller, is the engineering question this paper takes up, and the answer carries direct consequences for sensor-side recoverability bounds and for deployment-grade audit of contested runs.

We approach that question on a single desktop CNC milling platform (Bantam Tools desktop mill, machinable-wax workpiece, dry stepper-driven cutting, 4 Hz envelope-extracted sensor stream); cross-platform replication on a production-class VMC is future work (Section 8.6) and a precondition for any deployment claim outside this scope. The intended application is **forensic-support post-hoc audit** of contested runs: a controller-independent record of executed instructions that complements file-hash signing and controller attestation rather than a real-time intrusion-detection system, reviewed offline

against the controller log when a run is flagged. Within that audit posture the per-field characterization additionally supports offline process verification and human-in-the-loop triage of a narrow subset of G-code substitutions limited to command, axis, and motion-sign edits within the trained toolpath envelope in increasingly networked manufacturing environments [1–6].

Three boundaries are explicitly out of scope. Real-time autonomous SOC tier-1 alerting is *not* a supported deployment posture on this stack (Section 7.4), and numeric-coordinate and feed-rate substitutions remain undetectable on the present 4-Hz sensor stack by an information-theoretic bound (Section 7.4). The audit posture is additionally bound to *in-distribution* inputs — closed-world over the V8 token vocabulary (Section 3.2) and the nine training-time operation classes (Section 5.1); novel-command and novel-operation-class inputs fall outside this envelope (LOCO collapse, Section 6.12) and are out of scope for the present system. The cost envelope a wider sensor stack could in principle catch (scrapped parts, damaged tooling, or worse) [7,8] is therefore framing for future cross-platform replication, not a claim of the present system.

Multi-modal sensor monitoring of CNC machines is a mature subfield, but its targets have been broad. Tool-wear estimation [7–11], operation-type classification [12,13], and process-monitoring tasks such as surface-quality and anomaly detection [14,15] answer session-level questions: *is the tool worn?*, *what kind of operation is running?*, *is the surface within tolerance?* Their target labels are coarse: a single value per recording, or a class per file. The finer question (can the specific G-code instruction executing at this moment be identified from sensors alone?) has been largely absent from the CNC literature, despite its direct implications for tamper detection, the dual-use side-channel leakage of manufacturing instructions [16–21], and root-cause analysis on contested runs.

Why CNC milling is harder than the additive-manufacturing analogue.

The closest body of work is side-channel reconstruction of toolpaths in additive manufacturing [16–18], where Fused Deposition Modeling deposits material one axis at a time in a controlled environment, sensors can be placed freely without risk of damage, and the sensor-to-G-code mapping is comparatively low-noise. CNC milling is a substantially harder signal environment. Simultaneous multi-axis interpolation, nonlinear force-engagement relationships, structural vibration through the machine frame, and high-energy chip ejection corrupt sensor signals and physically constrain where sensors can be mounted [7,12]. The mapping is also many-to-one: many G-code instructions produce broadly similar sensor signatures when their cutting parameters coincide, and the same instruction can be cut at different speeds, depths, or materials.

Building on prior work in our group.

The sensor encoder used in this study is a prior contribution that achieved 96.3% accuracy on nine-class CNC operation classification using a multi-modal denoising autoencoder over six distributed sensor boards [22]. That work established the encoder’s representational competence at *operation-class* granularity. A companion contribution defined a hybrid grammar-based tokenization of G-code suitable for sequence models [23]. The present paper takes the encoder as a fixed feature extractor and the grammar as a vocabulary, then asks what additional information the encoder’s per-window latent carries about the row-level instructions that drove the cut.

Three challenges specific to this task.

Direct G-code generation from sensor signals raises issues that off-the-shelf sequence-to-sequence models [24–27] do not address: (i) a 64-second window straddles tens to hundreds of G-code rows, so a naive window-level target destroys row-level information; (ii) the numeric vocabulary contains thousands of bucket tokens, most absent from any one training fold; and (iii) positional metadata (window index, file identifier) is an obvious shortcut that inflates accuracy without proving sensor-driven recovery [28,29]. The contributions below address each.

Research questions. This study is guided by four research questions.

- RQ1. Per-field recoverability (window-aggregated).** Which components of a G-code line (command identity, axis presence, motion direction, numeric value) are recoverable from sensor data alone, and with what fidelity? Because 77.7% of G-code rows occupy ≤ 1 sample period at the released 4-Hz rate (Section 8.2), this is in practice a *window-aggregated row-modal recovery* claim, not a sub-sample-resolved per-row claim: the supervisory target is per-row but the sensor evidence consumed by the encoder is the 64-second window-level envelope.
- RQ2. The metadata-versus-sensor split.** Does exposing positional metadata (window index, file identifier) to the decoder improve recovery, and which fields benefit if so?
- RQ3. Sensor-modality contribution.** Which of seven sensor groups (accelerometer, gyroscope, magnetometer, environmental, color, audio-RMS, electrical) carry the strongest instruction-level signal?
- RQ4. Cross-class generalization.** Does the decoder generalize to machining operation classes it never saw during training (leave-one-class-out)?

Headline findings (stated as bounds, not raw accuracy).

The central quantities of this paper are not the closed-vocabulary ~ 0.89 command accuracy but two bounds that frame it. Above the operation-class modal predictor the decoder adds a +22 pp class-prior-controlled within-class command increment, which we report as an *upper* bound on sensor-driven recovery (robust to conditioning the null on operation class; a 4-of-5-fold effect that is zero on one fold; Section 7.1.0.2). On an open-vocabulary leave-one-class-out holdout, command recovery collapses to a floor of 0.213 (Section 6.12). End-to-end generative reconstruction is at floor (autoregressive whole-sequence exact-match 0.026); we therefore reserve “recovery” for the per-field categorical heads and treat generative coordinate reconstruction as unsupported on this stack.

Contributions.

- (1) Per-row supervised target formulation.** Each sensor window is mapped to the single G-code line that fires within it, yielding approximately $\sim 19,500$ training samples per fold versus ~ 300 for a window-level alternative, while eliminating within-window label ambiguity.
- (2) G-Code Decoder architecture.** A Transformer decoder with six structured prediction heads (token, type, motion-command, parameter-type, sign, digit) operating on the frozen latent of a prior multi-modal denoising encoder [22]. Inference is grammar-constrained at the token head so that structurally invalid transitions are masked at runtime, following recent work on grammar-aware decoding [30–32].
- (3) Per-axis recoverability characterization.** An evaluation that decomposes G-code into per-axis fields and reports separately for each field whether (a) the axis is detected, (b) the motion direction is correct, and (c) the numeric value is recovered. The corpus supports this analysis on the X, Y, Z, and R fields; F is reported only at thin support, and S, I, J have effectively zero positive support and are not evaluable (Table 5). This separation reveals which fields are sensor-recoverable and which are not.
- (4) Ablation matrix.** Cross-validated ablations of (a) positional-metadata access, (b) per-row vs. full-window target formulation, (c) sequence-classifier prior, (d) vocabulary precision, (e) each of seven sensor modalities, and (f) a no-numeric retraining of the decoder (Section 6.10.2) that decomposes the autoregressive mode-collapse into a measurable numeric-desynchronization contribution and a dominant intrinsic structural-stream collapse. Methodology follows ablation-study practice in industrial neural-network research [28,29].
- (5) Cross-class generalization study.** A leave-one-class-out study across nine machining operation classes that stress-tests whether the decoder memorizes per-class shortcuts or generalizes to unseen toolpath strategies within the present platform/material envelope; the cross-platform / cross-material generalization question (production-VMC, cast-iron, flood-coolant) is explicitly out of scope and is the principal open direction (Section 8.6).

(6) From-scratch Transformer seq2seq baseline. We compare the headline architecture against a from-scratch Transformer seq2seq baseline (Section 6.14); the comparison scopes the architectural contribution to autoregressive deployment-mode inference, where the frozen encoder + grammar-constrained decoder + structured heads buy the accuracy lift over the baseline. The companion limit paper [33] develops the information-theoretic account of *why* the per-field recoverability pattern takes the shape characterized here; the present paper diagnoses the phenomenon and cites the companion for the underlying source-entropy and sub-Nyquist bounds.

Scope statement.

Every quantitative result in this paper is conditional on a single desktop CNC platform (Bantam Tools desktop mill, stepper drive, no flood coolant), a single workpiece material class (machinable wax / soft polymer), and a single envelope-extracted 4 Hz aggregate sensor stream. Vibration amplitudes, spectral content, motor-current signatures, and acoustic-emission floors all differ materially on a production vertical machining center (Section 5.1, “Platform characterization”); whether the recoverability factorization transfers there is the cross-platform open question of Section 8.6, not a claim the present corpus can settle. The present paper is therefore a single-platform characterization study; cross-platform replication is future work.

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows. Section 2 reviews related work; Section 3 formalizes the task; Section 4 describes the architecture; Section 5 details the dataset and protocol; Section 6 addresses RQ1–RQ4 in order; Section 7 interprets the results, with the per-attack-class detectability characterization in Section 7.4; Section 8 outlines limitations and future directions.

2. Related Work

We review four bodies of work that bear on the present study: sensor-based CNC monitoring and modality fusion (Section 2.1); sequence-to-sequence and grammar-constrained decoding (Section 2.2); side-channel reconstruction of manufacturing instructions (Section 2.3); and manufacturing cybersecurity context (Section 2.4).

2.1. CNC Process Monitoring and Multi-Modal Sensor Fusion

Sensor-based monitoring of machining processes is a mature subfield. Early work identified force, vibration, acoustic emission, temperature, and motor current as complementary modalities for tool-condition assessment [7]. Hand-crafted features extracted via Fourier and wavelet transforms became standard practice [9,10]. Deep learning enabled end-to-end feature learning from raw signals, reducing reliance on domain-specific feature engineering [12,13]. Convolutional networks applied to vibration spectrograms and raw multi-channel signals achieved strong results on bearing fault detection [34], surface-roughness classification [14,35], and CNC anomaly detection [15].

Multi-modal fusion strategies span early, late, and intermediate approaches [36,37]. Cross-modal attention has shown particular promise when modalities are complementary rather than redundant [11, 38]. A comprehensive review by Tsanousa *et al.* [39] confirms that the field remains dominated by tool-condition and operation-classification tasks. A separate, model-based line — digital-twin and digital-shadow process verification [40] — compares observed machine state against a simulated reference of the *intended* program; it is complementary to, and orthogonal in trust assumptions from, the present work, which reconstructs the executed instruction stream from sensors alone without a reference model or a trusted controller. Motor-current and servo-drive signatures are an established adjacent modality for load and toolpath inference within this tradition [7,12], and form one of the seven modality groups fused by the encoder used here. Two gaps persist relative to instruction-level recovery. First, target labels in prior work are session-level (tool worn / not worn) or coarse class labels (turning vs. milling); per-row instruction targets are largely absent. Second, ablation studies that progressively remove sensor groups to quantify their marginal contribution [28,29] are themselves

uncommon in CNC monitoring, leaving practitioners without quantitative guidance on which sensors carry instruction-level signal as distinct from operation-class signal.

2.2. Sequence-to-Sequence Modeling and Grammar-Constrained Decoding

Sequence-to-sequence neural models were established for natural-language translation [24–26] and have since been applied across speech [27], time series [41], and robotics [42]. Long Short-Term Memory networks [43] remain widely used for sequential industrial data where streaming inference and causal ordering matter [44]. Denoising autoencoders [45] learn representations robust to input corruption — a property particularly valuable when industrial sensors are subject to mechanical, electromagnetic, and thermal noise.

When the output sequence follows a known grammar, constrained decoding can prune structurally invalid tokens at inference time. Picard [30] pioneered incremental parser-guided decoding for text-to-SQL; Synchromesh [46] extended the idea to general code generation with a target-side constraint language, and LMQL [47] formalized constrained generation as a query-language abstraction over the model. More recent work has pushed efficient runtime grammar masks closer to zero overhead: Outlines [31] compiles regular expressions and context-free grammars into finite-state automata reused across decoding steps, XGrammar [32] achieves near-zero-overhead per-token masking for JSON and code generation, and Geng *et al.* [48] demonstrate that grammar-constrained decoding can recover structured outputs from off-the-shelf pretrained models without any task-specific fine-tuning. G-code is amenable to the same treatment: instructions consist of an optional command token followed by address-value pairs subject to first-order ordering constraints [23,49]. Recent work on large-language-model code generation for additive manufacturing [50–52] addresses a related but distinct task — generating G-code from natural-language descriptions or images — and does not consider sensor-conditioned recovery.

2.3. Side-Channel Reconstruction of Manufacturing Instructions

The closest analog to this work is side-channel reconstruction of toolpaths in additive manufacturing. Al Faruque *et al.* [16] recovered Fused Deposition Modeling print geometry from acoustic emissions, achieving high agreement with the source G-code. Song *et al.* [17] showed that a smartphone microphone alone could recover sufficient information to reproduce printed objects. Chhetri *et al.* [18] extended the approach to a detection-oriented setting, identifying kinetic anomalies indicative of attacks. More recent work uses optical [21] and combined acoustic-magnetic [20] side-channels to reconstruct full part geometries from 3D printers. Sturm *et al.* [3] and Yampolskiy *et al.* [4] survey cyber-physical attack taxonomies in additive manufacturing. We note one important methodological distinction: the AM side-channel literature typically uses *raw acoustic emission* signals sampled at kHz–MHz rates, whereas the present work uses an *audio-RMS envelope* scalar feature sampled at 4 Hz. The audio-RMS feature retains the energy magnitude of the cutting sound but discards the spectral content that drives most prior AM-side-channel methods; the resulting per-instruction recovery is therefore not directly comparable to the AM literature and is more conservative in its sensor demands.

CNC milling poses a substantially harder sensor environment than additive manufacturing for the reasons stated in Section 1: simultaneous multi-axis motion, nonlinear force-engagement, and structural vibration. As a consequence, the additive-manufacturing recovery methods do not transfer directly. Kimmell *et al.* [6] demonstrated sensor-based detection of control-injection attacks in CNC machining using energy-anomaly thresholds, but their task is binary detection rather than instruction-level reconstruction. To the best of our knowledge, no prior work reports per-row G-code recovery from CNC sensor data with structured-output evaluation.

An information-theoretic account of *why* per-field recoverability stratifies the way it does — the per-head and per-toolpath source entropy of the CNC instruction stream and its 4 Hz sub-Nyquist

floor — is developed in a companion limit paper [33]; the present work treats those bounds as given and characterizes the decoder behavior against them.

2.4. Manufacturing Cybersecurity and Process Verification

The cybersecurity case for instruction-level sensor verification is direct. The machining-specific instruction-stream-integrity gap is articulated in the FMNet 2024 research-needs report [2]; NIST SP 800-82 Rev. 3 [1] provides the general operational-technology framing, specifically its continuous-monitoring guidance under the Detect function and its supply-chain-risk guidance. Against that framing, an out-of-band physics-of-record monitor is a complementary control, with the caveat that its guarantee holds only insofar as the sensor path itself is trustworthy (Section 7.4). Adversarial G-code substitution in PLC and CNC controllers is an established attack surface [3,4,6,53,54]. Reconstructing the actually-executed instruction stream from external sensors, independent of the controller, provides an integrity-checking baseline that cannot be subverted by controller-resident malware. The present work characterizes which components of that instruction stream are realistically reconstructable on present-day sensor hardware, and which require additional sensor coverage or richer training data to recover.

Positioning.

Table 1 positions this study against representative prior work in sensor-based CNC monitoring and manufacturing-instruction side-channel recovery. To our knowledge this is the first per-instruction, per-field categorical recovery of CNC *milling* G-code from a multi-modal sensor stream — as opposed to the session/operation-class granularity of prior CNC monitoring and the geometric-toolpath granularity of additive-manufacturing side-channels. The file-level cross-validation with leave-one-class-out generalization testing is the evaluation methodology supporting that claim, not a co-equal novelty leg.

Table 1. Comparison with representative prior experimental studies in sensor-based manufacturing-instruction recovery and CNC monitoring. AM = additive manufacturing; CV = cross-validation; LOCO = leave-one-class-out.

Study	Domain	Task	Output target	Validation	Field-level eval	LOCO
Al Faruque <i>et al.</i> [16]	AM (FDM)	G-code reconstruction	Toolpath geometry	Held-out parts	No	No
Song <i>et al.</i> [17]	AM (FDM)	G-code reconstruction	Toolpath geometry	Held-out prints	No	No
Chhetri <i>et al.</i> [18]	AM (FDM)	Attack detection	Binary anomaly	Train/test	No	No
Chattopadhyay <i>et al.</i> [21]	AM (FDM)	G-code reconstruction	Toolpath geometry	Held-out prints	No	No
Stathatos <i>et al.</i> [14]	CNC turning	Surface-quality class	4-class label	10-fold CV	N/A	No
Coelho <i>et al.</i> [15]	CNC milling	Anomaly detection	Binary label	Train/test	N/A	No
Kimmell <i>et al.</i> [6]	CNC milling	Attack detection	Binary label	Held-out runs	N/A	No
Encoder [22]	CNC milling	Operation classification	9-class label	5-fold file CV	N/A	No
<i>Orthogonal (non-sensor) defenses for G-code-integrity verification, listed for scope</i>						
Signed G-code file [2,54]	CNC / AM	File-integrity audit	Cryptographic hash / signature	—	N/A	N/A
Controller attestation [53]	PLC / CNC	Firmware integrity	TCB measurement / remote attest.	—	N/A	N/A
This work	CNC milling	Per-row G-code recovery	Per-row token sequence	5-fold file CV	Yes	Yes (9 classes)

3. Problem Formulation

3.1. Task Definition

Let $W \in \mathbb{R}^{T \times C}$ denote a sensor window of T samples at C channels, recorded over a fixed window length aligned to a CNC milling operation. Let g denote the G-code line that was executing within W . The task is to learn a mapping

$$f_{\theta} : W \mapsto \hat{g}, \quad \hat{g} = (\hat{t}_1, \hat{t}_2, \dots, \hat{t}_L),$$

where $\hat{g}$ is a sequence of L G-code tokens drawn from a vocabulary $\mathcal{V}$. The training objective minimizes a multi-head cross-entropy loss with the auxiliary structured heads described in Section 4.3, plus an

end-of-sequence token. At inference, the decoder generates tokens autoregressively under a grammar mask that zeros structurally invalid transitions in the legacy-token head.

3.2. Vocabulary and Token Types

We follow CNC-shop convention in calling each G-code line a *block*; blocks divide into *rapid moves* (G0, traverse without cutting) and *cutting moves* (G1/G2/G3, linear and arc feeds), both addressed identically by the tokenization below. We tokenize G-code with a hybrid scheme that disentangles structural primitives from numeric values [23,49]. The vocabulary contains four token classes:

- **SPECIAL tokens** — PAD, BOS, EOS, UNK, MASK.
- **COMMAND tokens** — literal motion or machine commands (G0, G1, G2, G3, M3, M5, M30, ...).
- **PARAM tokens** — address letters that introduce an axis or rate parameter (X, Y, Z, I, J, K, R, F, S, P).
- **NUMERIC tokens** — bucketed numeric values, one bucket per (axis, magnitude) pair. The full vocabulary contains 1,048 NUM_X buckets, 1,086 NUM_Y buckets, and 231 NUM_Z buckets, with smaller bucket sets for the remaining axes. Total vocabulary size: 2,418.

A typical G-code line in the corpus, e.g. G1 X1.4919 Y1.4848 F22., becomes a token sequence BOS G1 X NUM_X_1492 Y NUM_Y_1485 F NUM_F_22 EOS. The bucketization discretizes numeric values to a fixed precision; the per-position digit head described in Section 4.3 provides an auxiliary regression-style signal to mitigate the resulting discretization loss.

3.3. Per-Row Target Formulation

A naive supervised target assigns one G-code label per sensor window. In the present corpus, a 256-sample window at 4 Hz spans 64 seconds and contains an average of 60 distinct G-code rows (median 29, max 237). A window-level target therefore aggregates the information across these rows, destroying the row-level distinctions that distinguish, for instance, an X positive move from an X negative move within the same window. We instead emit one (W, g_r) training pair per G-code row r that fires within window W , where g_r is the token sequence for that single row. This per-row formulation:

- Removes within-window label ambiguity. Each (W, g_r) pair has exactly one correct target.
- Increases the training-sample count by an order of magnitude ($\sim 19,500$ per fold versus ~ 300 for the window-level alternative).
- Decouples the supervised target from the windowing schedule, preventing the model from inferring labels via positional shortcuts on (window_index, source_file).

A complementary *full-window* formulation, evaluated as an ablation (Section 6.10.3), retains one sample per window but uses a multi-line target consisting of all G-code rows that fired within the window, concatenated in temporal order. This formulation has fewer training samples per fold but a richer per-sample supervisory signal, and tests whether row-level autoregressive context (the previous row's tokens) closes any per-row recovery gaps.

3.4. Evaluation Metrics

We report seven complementary metrics:

1. **Token accuracy** — proportion of non-padding token positions in the generated sequence whose argmax matches the target. The headline metric for sequence-quality.
2. **Sequence accuracy** — proportion of test samples for which *every* non-padding token matches the target. A strict exact-match metric.
3. **Type accuracy** — per-token classification accuracy on the 4-way SPECIAL/COMMAND/PARAM/NUMERIC type head. Diagnoses whether the model is in the right structural mode at each step.

4. **Command accuracy** — per-token classification accuracy on the 6-way motion-command head, evaluated only at positions where the target carries a COMMAND token.
5. **Parameter-type accuracy** — per-token classification accuracy on the 10-way axis-letter head, evaluated at PARAM positions.
6. **Sign accuracy** — per-position classification accuracy on the 3-way (positive, negative, absent) motion-sign head, evaluated at the relevant axis positions.
7. **Numeric (digit) accuracy** — per-digit-position correctness pooled across all six digit positions in NUM tokens. The companion regression measure for numeric values is mean absolute error (MAE) of the reconstructed coordinate.

Macro precision, recall, and F1 are computed for each classification head, using scikit-learn [55] on the per-token confusion matrix.

Teacher-forced vs. autoregressive evaluation.

For any autoregressive sequence model, two evaluation regimes give materially different numbers and reflect different deployment scenarios.

Teacher-forced (TF) evaluation supplies the ground-truth previous token at every position during the forward pass and measures the model’s per-position classification accuracy under that ideal input. It is the standard objective during training and the standard sweep-time metric. *Autoregressive* (AR) evaluation requires the model to consume its own previous predictions at each step, with no access to ground truth, and measures end-to-end generation quality under the actual deployment condition where no controller log is available to anchor the sequence.

The categorical heads in our decoder (type, command, parameter-type, sign) are independent classifiers on the encoder memory and therefore report identical accuracies under TF and AR. The autoregressive-token heads (legacy-token, digit-value, and the derived sequence and numeric metrics) report substantially lower accuracies under AR than under TF, as exposure-bias errors compound along the generated sequence.

Throughout this paper we explicitly distinguish the two regimes. The headline result table reports both regimes for the autoregressive heads, since the TF numbers correspond to the standard sweep-time evaluation used during hyperparameter selection while the AR numbers correspond to the realistic deployment scenario in which the decoder must recover G-code without a controller-log reference. For the categorical heads, a single number suffices because the regime distinction does not apply.

3.5. Threat Model

We state the threat model up front so that every recoverability result that follows can be read against it; Section 7.4 treats the operating-point and adaptive-adversary detail.

Trusted elements.

The multi-modal sensor stack and its acquisition pipeline are trusted: sensors are physically secured, the telemetry path is integrity-protected, the recorded sensor stream faithfully represents the physical machine state, and the decoder model and verification host are not co-located with the controller. These properties are operational requirements on the deployment, not implemented in the present prototype; the laboratory acquisition pipeline used to generate the corpus uses unauthenticated USB sensor links and is not itself a deployment-grade trust boundary. This is realistic for a process-monitoring deployment where sensors and analysis live outside the CNC controller’s trust boundary, but it is a non-trivial operational assumption (Section 7.4, “Sensor-side adversary”): a controller-resident adversary with bus access to shared sensor infrastructure is out of scope, as are sensor-side wire-tap, EMI injection, packet replay, and calibration-spoofing attacks. We additionally assume the operator who initiates each run is authenticated to the verification host and that the program loaded on the controller is the same artifact whose hash was audited (e.g., via a controller-side

load-time attestation receipt [53] bound to the operator session); an insider-threat operator who loads an unaudited program post-attestation is a residual adversary the present scope does not address.

Untrusted elements.

The CNC controller, its firmware, and any G-code dispatch path between controller and machine are untrusted. The adversary may have read/write access to the controller's program memory, may inject substituted G-code, may modify cutting parameters mid-execution, or may replay an earlier benign program while a different program is intended.

Attack classes considered.

(i) *Block substitution* (e.g., G1 X1.5 becomes G1 X2.5; substituted blocks may differ in command identity, axis, sign, or numeric value); (ii) *parameter tampering*, where the program is structurally preserved but cutting parameters are altered (feed, spindle speed, depth of cut); (iii) *replay* of a previously-executed valid program while a different program was commanded; (iv) *block skip or duplicate* of executed blocks while the controller log reports nominal execution; (v) *upstream CAM / post-processor compromise*, where the toolpath is corrupted before the operator-signed G-code file is produced (enumerated for completeness but out of scope for the present detector, which agrees with an already-corrupted controller stream; Section 7.4). Per-attack-class detectability is reported in Table 14 (Section 7.4). In the MITRE ATT&CK for ICS taxonomy [56] these map respectively to T0843 / T0889 (Program Download / Modify Program), T0836 / T0831 (Modify Parameter / Manipulation of Control), T0856 (Spoof Reporting Message), T0855 (Unauthorized Command Message), and T0862 (Supply Chain Compromise). The decoder occupies the *Detect* function of NIST CSF 2.0 (continuous-monitoring category DE.CM) [57], complementing prevention controls (file signing, attestation) rather than replacing them; *Protect*, *Respond*, and *Recover* remain out of scope.

Adversary model: orthogonal defenses.

The sensor decoder is intended to run in parallel with — not in place of — the cheaper orthogonal defenses (file-hash / cryptographic signature on the G-code file; TCB attestation on the controller). Each defense covers attack classes the others cannot. The sensor decoder's residual value is the attack subset that survives a signed-G-code audit and beats controller attestation that does not extend to runtime memory: runtime substitution, selective skip / duplicate, and wrong-workpiece / wrong-fixturing. Within that subset, the decoder is further bounded by the closed-vocabulary in-distribution regime under which it is trained (Section 5.3) and by the per-field recoverability characterized below. The full three-layer defense-in-depth comparison is Table 1 and Section 7.4.

4. Method

4.1. System Overview

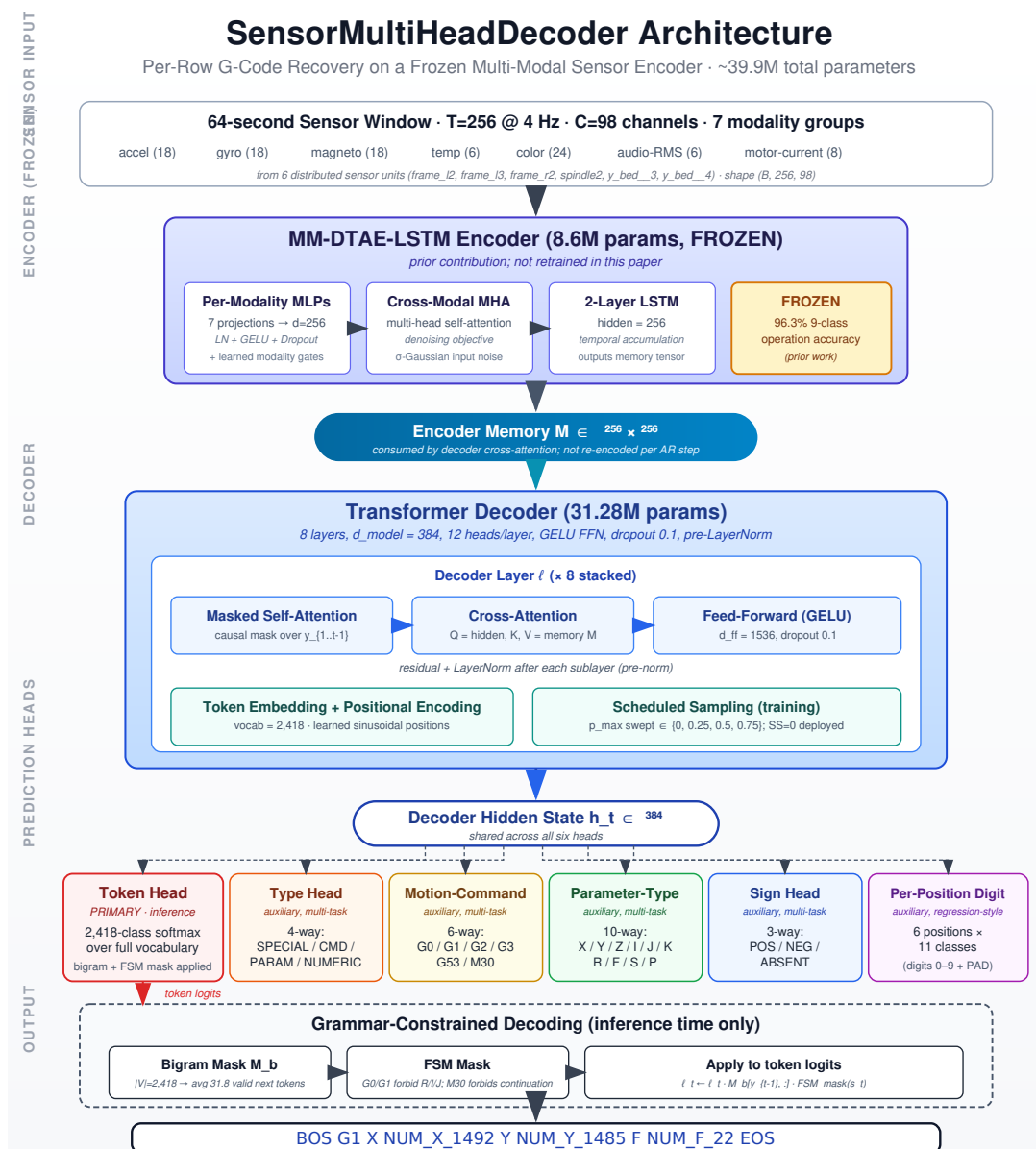


Figure 1. System overview. A 64-second sensor window (256 samples $\times$ 98 channels across seven modality groups) is mapped by the frozen MM-DTAE-LSTM encoder (8.6M parameters) to a 256×256 memory tensor. An 8-layer Transformer decoder ($d_{\text{model}}=384$, 12 heads) consumes this memory via cross-attention and generates tokens autoregressively. Six prediction heads share the decoder’s hidden state and provide structured output (token, type, motion-command, parameter-type, sign, per-position digit). A static grammar mask zeros structurally invalid token transitions in the legacy-token softmax at inference time.

The system has three stages (Figure 1). (i) A multi-modal sensor encoder maps a (256-sample, 98-channel) sensor window into a (256-step, 256-dim) memory sequence. (ii) A Transformer decoder consumes this memory via cross-attention and generates a token sequence representing the G-code line that was executing within the window. (iii) A grammar mask zeros structurally invalid transitions in the decoder’s softmax distribution at inference time. The encoder is frozen for all experiments; its

training is described in a separate contribution [22] and summarized here only insofar as it influences the decoder.

4.2. Sensor Encoder (Frozen)

The encoder is a multi-modal denoising autoencoder coupled to a temporal LSTM (MM-DTAE-LSTM). It accepts seven modality groups — accelerometer (3-axis, 6 boards = 18 channels), gyroscope (18), magnetometer (18), environmental temperature (6), ambient color (24), audio RMS (6), and motor current (8) — for a total of $C = 98$ channels. A per-modality projection layer maps each modality into a shared $d = 256$ space; learned modality-weighting gates [36,37] produce a fused representation; a multi-head self-attention stack [26] captures cross-channel interactions; a denoising reconstruction objective [45] encourages noise-robust representations; and a final two-layer LSTM [43,44] produces the temporal memory consumed by the decoder. The full encoder has 8.6 M parameters and was trained for 30 epochs on the same file-level 5-fold splits used here, reaching 96.3% test-set accuracy on the same nine-class operation-type task [22]. The encoder is frozen for all decoder experiments and serves as a fixed feature extractor. A representative test window showing the seven modality groups aligned in time against the G-code rows that fired within is reproduced in Supplementary Section S13.1 (Figure S16) as the visual analogue of the task formulation.

4.3. Decoder Architecture

G-Code Decoder is an 8-layer Transformer decoder with $d_{\text{model}} = 384$ and $h = 12$ attention heads per layer. Each decoder layer consists of (a) masked multi-head self-attention over the partial output sequence, (b) multi-head cross-attention over the encoder memory, (c) a position-wise feed-forward network with GELU activation, and (d) residual connections with pre-layer normalization [58]. Dropout [59] of 0.1 is applied after each sub-layer. The decoder has 31.28 M trainable parameters at the headline configuration (the Transformer stack is 18.9 M; the remainder is the grammar-mask + sensor-prior machinery and the six output heads, embedding, and positional encodings — component breakdown in Supplementary Section S19.8); with the frozen 8.6 M encoder the total system size is ≈ 39.9 M parameters.

4.3.1. Multi-Head Structured Output

Six prediction heads share the decoder’s final hidden state at each output position. Each head is a linear projection followed by a softmax (or a six-position softmax in the case of the digit head). The heads are trained jointly with a weighted cross-entropy loss:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{decoder}} = \lambda_{\text{tok}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{tok}} + \lambda_{\text{type}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{type}} + \lambda_{\text{cmd}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{cmd}} + \lambda_{\text{param}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{param}} + \lambda_{\text{digit}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{digit}} + \lambda_{\text{sign}} \mathcal{L}_{\text{sign}}.$$

Default weights are $\lambda_{\text{tok}} = 3.0$ and all auxiliary $\lambda = 1.0$. The auxiliary heads serve two purposes: they regularize the shared representation toward token-type-aware features, and they expose structural prediction errors that would otherwise be hidden inside aggregate token accuracy. The $\lambda_{\text{tok}} = 3.0$ default was carried forward from a Stage-1 hyperparameter sweep cell (Section 4.6) on a coarse $\lambda_{\text{tok}} \in \{1, 3, 5\}$ grid: $\lambda_{\text{tok}} = 1$ left the token head under-trained relative to the auxiliary heads (TF token validation degraded ~ 4 pp on fold-1) and $\lambda_{\text{tok}} = 5$ over-weighted the token head at the cost of the categorical heads (parameter-type and sign each lost ~ 1 pp on fold-1 validation), with $\lambda_{\text{tok}} = 3$ the validation-best compromise; this is a fold-1-only sensitivity check, not a 5-fold sweep, and we record the value as a heuristic anchor rather than an optimized hyperparameter.

Legacy token head.

A vocabulary-sized softmax (2,418 classes) operating on the decoder’s final hidden state. This head is the primary inference output: at each timestep, the next token is drawn from this distribution. A grammar mask (Section 4.3.2) zeros structurally invalid transitions before the softmax.

Type head.

A 4-way classifier over {SPECIAL, COMMAND, PARAM, NUMERIC} on each output position. Trained against the type of the target token at that position. This is the coarsest classification head and the easiest task; its accuracy is therefore an upper bound on the structural sanity of the decoded sequence.

Motion-command head.

A 6-way classifier over {G0, G1, G2, G3, G53, M30}, evaluated against the target's command token at COMMAND positions. Distinguishes rapid moves (G0), linear cuts (G1), clockwise/counter-clockwise arcs (G2/G3), the work-coordinate-cancel command (G53), and program-end (M30). G53 and M30 have very small support ($n \approx 6$ per fold, ≤ 30 pooled; Table 3); the per-class F1 for these classes is correspondingly underpowered (see Section 8.3).

Parameter-type head.

A 10-way classifier over {X, Y, Z, I, J, K, R, F, S, P}, evaluated against the target's address letter at PARAM positions. On the present corpus only X, Y, Z, R, and F have positive support in the test splits (see Table 5 for per-field frequencies); the remaining trained labels (I, J, K, S, P) do not appear in the test data and therefore do not have per-class entries in Table 4.

Sign head.

A 3-way classifier over {POSITIVE, NEGATIVE, ABSENT} that predicts the sign of the most recent axis-value. This head provides direct supervision on motion direction independently of the discretized numeric value.

Per-position digit head.

A six-position 11-way classifier (digits 0–9 plus PAD) that reconstructs the numeric value of each NUM token digit-by-digit. The six positions cover the precision range observed in the corpus (typically 0–2XXXX for an X or Y coordinate). Decomposing numeric reconstruction by digit position makes the manuscript's per-position recoverability analysis (Section 6.4) possible and provides a regression-style auxiliary signal that complements the discretized NUM-token head.

4.3.2. Grammar-Constrained Decoding

G-code follows a regular grammar: a line starts with an optional command (G/M) token; each address letter is followed by exactly one numeric value; certain commands (e.g. G2, G3) require specific subsequent fields. We encode the local part of this grammar as a static $|V| \times |V|$ binary transition mask and apply it to the legacy-token logits at each inference step, zeroing out structurally invalid transitions: BOS must be followed by a command or PARAM letter; a PARAM letter must be followed by its matching NUM token; a NUM token must be followed by another PARAM letter, a command, or EOS. The mask reduces, on average, the valid next-token set from $|V| = 2,418$ to 31.8 tokens, a reduction that improves both calibration and exact-match accuracy. Implementation follows the runtime grammar-mask pattern established in Picard [30], Outlines [31], and XGrammar [32]; the same pattern of compiling a domain grammar into a per-step transition mask underlies Synchromesh [46], LMQL [47], and the fine-tuning-free constrained-decoding setup of Geng *et al.* [48].

Scope and limitations of the local mask.

The bigram mask above does not encode command-state-dependent rules of the form “the active command is G0, therefore the next address letter must not be R” (R is an arc-radius parameter valid only with G2/G3). Such rules require a finite-state grammar (FSM) over a multi-token history. A separate inference-time FSM layer, applied at autoregressive inference only (teacher-forced training

is unaffected because the targets already encode correct structure), tracks the most recently emitted move-command as state and forbids R/I/J after G0/G1 and any command/PARAM after M30, zeroing those transitions in the legacy-token logits before the softmax; its full state specification ($\mathcal{S} = \{s_0, s_{G0}, s_{G1}, s_{G2}, s_{G3}, s_{M30}, s_{\text{other}}\}$ with per-state forbidden-PARAM sets) is in Supplementary Materials Section S35.

FSM ablation.

Across $\sim 167,400$ generated tokens per configuration the bigram-only mask permits G0/G1 to emit R/I/J, producing 329 V1 violations affecting 31% of baseline samples and 333 affecting 25% of with-shortcuts samples. With the FSM active, V1 violations drop to 0 on baseline (100% reduction) and 11 on with-shortcuts (97% reduction; the residual 11 are G53/G55/G17/G90/G94 followed by R, outside the present FSM’s scope). The 5-fold accuracy cost is within fold-to-fold noise ($-0.27/-0.41$ pp baseline token/numeric, $-0.04/+0.01$ pp with-shortcuts; paired- t and Wilcoxon all $p > 0.4$), so the FSM eliminates the dominant grammar-violation class at no measurable accuracy cost; we adopt it as the default deployment-time decoding configuration. The full violation counts and paired-test statistics are in Supplementary Materials Section S35.

Forward-pass pseudocode.

Algorithm 1 summarizes the deployment-time grammar-masked autoregressive forward pass that produces the token sequence reported throughout this paper. The bigram mask and the finite-state-machine layer are both applied to the legacy-token logits before the softmax; the structured heads (type, command, parameter-type, sign, digit) read the same hidden state but do not consume the autoregressive token stream.

Algorithm 1 Grammar-masked autoregressive forward pass for G-Code Decoder.

Require: Sensor window $W \in \mathbb{R}^{256 \times 98}$; frozen encoder E_θ ; decoder D_ϕ with heads $\{h_{\text{tok}}, h_{\text{type}}, h_{\text{cmd}}, h_{\text{pt}}, h_{\text{sgn}}, h_{\text{dig}}\}$; bigram mask $M_b \in \{0, 1\}^{|V| \times |V|}$; FSM transition function $\delta(\cdot, \cdot)$; max length L_{max} .

```

1:  $\mathbf{m} \leftarrow E_\theta(W)$  ▷  $256 \times 256$  memory; encoder frozen
2:  $\hat{g} \leftarrow [\text{BOS}]$ ;  $s \leftarrow s_0$  ▷ state of the FSM
3: for  $t = 1$  to  $L_{\text{max}}$  do
4:    $\mathbf{h}_t \leftarrow D_\phi(\mathbf{s}_{1:t-1}, \mathbf{m})$  ▷ cross-attend over  $\mathbf{m}$ 
5:    $\ell_t \leftarrow h_{\text{tok}}(\mathbf{h}_t)$  ▷ legacy-token logits,  $\in \mathbb{R}^{|V|}$ 
6:    $\ell_t \leftarrow \ell_t \odot M_b[\hat{g}_{t-1}, :]$  ▷ bigram mask
7:    $\ell_t \leftarrow \ell_t \odot \text{FSM\_mask}(s)$  ▷ FSM mask on top of bigram
8:    $y_t \leftarrow \arg \max_v \text{softmax}(\ell_t)_v$ 
9:    $\hat{g} \leftarrow [\hat{g}, y_t]$ ;  $s \leftarrow \delta(s, y_t)$ 
10:  if  $y_t = \text{EOS}$  then break
11: end if
12: end for
13:  $\{\hat{y}_{\text{type}}, \hat{y}_{\text{cmd}}, \hat{y}_{\text{pt}}, \hat{y}_{\text{sgn}}, \hat{y}_{\text{dig}}\} \leftarrow \{h_{\text{type}}, h_{\text{cmd}}, h_{\text{pt}}, h_{\text{sgn}}, h_{\text{dig}}\}(\mathbf{H})$  ▷ auxiliary heads on hidden states
14:  $\mathbf{H} = [\mathbf{h}_1, \dots, \mathbf{h}_t]$ ; do not consume  $\hat{g}$ 
return  $\hat{g}, \{\hat{y}_{\text{type}}, \hat{y}_{\text{cmd}}, \hat{y}_{\text{pt}}, \hat{y}_{\text{sgn}}, \hat{y}_{\text{dig}}\}$ 

```

4.3.3. Scheduled Sampling

The decoder is trained with teacher forcing as default. Optionally a scheduled-sampling regime [60] is applied: with probability p that linearly increases from 0 to a tuned maximum p_{max} over training, each input position is replaced with the model’s own previous prediction rather than the ground-truth target. This reduces exposure bias between training and inference. The maximum p_{max} was chosen by the hyperparameter sweep (Section 4.6) on its composite selection score — a weighted geometric mean combining fold-1 validation token accuracy with held-out test command/numeric/sequence accuracy; the headline value is $p_{\text{max}} = 0.5$, which lifted command accuracy by +17 pp over $p_{\text{max}} = 0$ at the cost of optimization stability at smaller numeric vocabularies (Section 6.10.2 body, where the Design-B-style runs use $p_{\text{max}} = 0$ for this reason). Values tested:

$p_{\max} \in \{0.1, 0.2, 0.5, 1.0\}$ against the $p_{\max} = 0$ teacher-forced default; 0.5 was the composite-best (on validation token accuracy alone a cross-window-pointer cell ranked marginally higher, so this selection touches held-out test metrics and is a configuration choice, not an independent generalization estimate).

4.4. Training Configuration

The decoder is optimized with AdamW [61] ($\eta = 5 \times 10^{-5}$, weight decay 0.05) for up to 300 epochs with early stopping on validation token accuracy (patience 75). The first 10 epochs use a linear warm-up. Batch size is 64, mini-batches are shuffled per epoch, and gradient clipping is applied at norm 1.0. Best-checkpoint-by-validation-token-accuracy is retained.

The decoder is trained *without* positional metadata in its baseline configuration: `window_index`, `total_windows`, and `source_file` identifiers are not exposed to the decoder. Section 6.10.1 ablates this choice. The 5-fold training/validation loss and token-accuracy trajectories (monotonic decrease; validation plateaus near epoch 80–100, well within the patience-75 budget) are in Supplementary Section S13.2 (Figure S17).

4.5. Encoder Information-Content Probe

Because the encoder is frozen, the decoder is bounded above by what its representation carries. We characterize that bound with MLP probes on the mean-pooled encoder memory: for each of (command, axis-presence, motion-sign, operation-type) a two-hidden-layer MLP (hidden 256, ReLU, dropout 0.2) is trained on train, selected on val, scored on test (MSE $\rightarrow$ RMSE for continuous numeric targets). Qualitatively, the mean-pooled memory clusters tightly by operation class; the nonlinear t-SNE projection is in Supplementary Section S13.3 (Figure S18), and the linear analogue is the PCA in Figure 2 below.

Linear structure.

PCA on the same memory matrix (549×256 ; Figure 2) shows it is strongly low-rank (9/24/40 PCs capture 80/95/99% of variance) with the first two PCs already linearly separating the operation classes. The class-discriminative signal thus lives in a low-dimensional, linearly-accessible subspace, while fine per-row numeric detail must live in the low-energy tail and is poorly preserved: the representational counterpart of the numeric bottleneck (Section 6.4) and of the class-prior confound (Section 7.1.0.2).

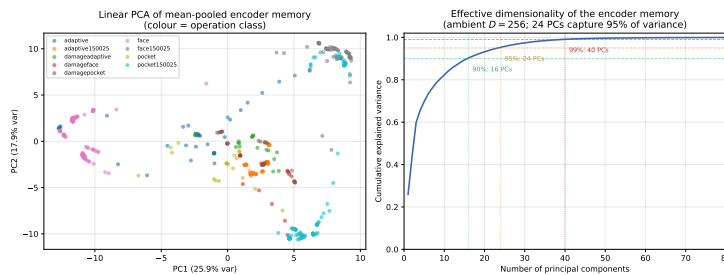


Figure 2. PCA of the mean-pooled frozen-encoder memory (549 test windows, all 5 folds). *Left:* linear PC1–PC2 projection colored by operation class — the classes are linearly separable, the linear analogue of the t-SNE in Supplementary Figure S18. *Right:* cumulative explained-variance curve. The representation is low-rank: 9 PCs reach 80%, 24 PCs reach 95%, 40 PCs reach 99% of the variance in a 256-dimensional ambient space. The dominant low-rank structure carries the class-level signal the categorical heads exploit; the fine numeric detail lives in the low-energy tail and is the representational bottleneck for exact coordinate recovery.

The probe results (`audit/encoder_probe_v8.json`) give three facts that bound the rest of the paper. (i) *Window-level signal exists:* operation type 0.846, axis presence ~ 0.87 – 0.93 (X/Y/Z), motion sign 0.80–0.86. (ii) *Per-row disambiguation does not:* a window holds a median of 29 rows (max 237)

but one mean-pooled vector, so probe accuracy is capped near the modal-row-per-window ceiling (the probe itself reaches command 0.77; the modal-row ceiling is ≈ 0.85) — the formulation gap that motivates the full-window comparison (Section 6.10.3) and underlies the class-prior confound (Section 7.1.0.2). (iii) *Numeric precision is lost*: X-value RMSE 0.97 approaches the within-window range (~ 3.0 normalized units), Y 0.80, Z 0.10 — the encoder retains a window-level mean, not per-row precision; row-level encoder pre-training is the natural remedy (Section 8).

4.6. Hyperparameter Sweep

The training configuration was selected through a three-stage hyperparameter sweep on fold 1. **Stage 1** (8 cells) explored learning rate, batch size, model dimension, and loss-weighting on a coarse grid. **Stage 2** (12 cells) refined around the Stage-1 winner by varying training techniques: curriculum learning, scheduled sampling, label smoothing [62], dropout, layer depth, and focal loss [63]. **Stage 3** (10 cells) tested architectural variants: encoder fine-tuning (the last-LSTM-layer-only cell, the encoder-bottleneck probe), pointer-network output, regression-head numeric output, cross-window attention, multi-seed variance, and alternative encoder configurations. The composite winner across all 30 cells (selected on a weighted-geometric-mean score) was used for the 5-fold experiments of Section 6. The Stage-3 encoder-fine-tune pilot (fold-1: command ~ 0.78 vs. frozen-encoder ~ 0.78 , no meaningful lift, $\sim 2\times$ cost, not promoted; grounds the encoder-bottleneck claim of Section 4.5 as a measured-if-underpowered result) and the sweep-fold caveat (the sweep ran on fold 1, the covariate-shift outlier of Section 8.3.0.1, so the configuration *rank* should be read as fold-1-validation-best rather than cross-fold-rank-stable, though the headline numbers are still computed on all five folds) are detailed in Supplementary Materials Section S38.

4.7. Architecture-Component Ablation Summary

Five architectural and training components of the decoder are ablated empirically, each pinned to the result section that reports its 5-fold effect. Supplementary Table S1 (Supplementary Section S3) consolidates the per-component findings; the underlying experiments are reported under the cited sections in full.

A one-row-per-component architecture-and-training-component ablation summary (consolidated effects with citations to the in-body subsections that report each in full) appears as Supplementary Table S1 in Supplementary Section S3.

The six prediction heads themselves are not ablated independently because the four auxiliary heads (type, parameter-type, sign, digit) share the same encoder-memory feature as the legacy-token head and serve as multi-task regularizers; isolating each would require separate retrains. The categorical-vs-numeric factorization Section 6.2 establishes is the de facto head-level decomposition — categorical heads are TF-AR-invariant (Section 3.4), so their effect is structural rather than dependent on autoregressive coupling.

5. Experimental Setup

5.1. Dataset

The corpus consists of 120 aligned CSV files recorded from a Bantam Tools desktop CNC milling machine [22]. Six distributed multi-sensor boards (frame_12, frame_13, frame_r2, spindle2, y_bed__3, y_bed__4) sample synchronously at 4 Hz; the double-underscore form matches the column-prefix convention in the released aligned CSVs. Each file carries:

- Accelerometer (3 axes $\times$ 6 boards = 18 channels);
- Gyroscope (18 channels);
- Magnetometer (18 channels);
- Ambient color sensing (RGBA $\times$ 6 boards = 24 channels);
- Environmental temperature (6 channels);

- Audio root-mean-square (6 channels);
- Motor-current draw (8 channels);

plus an aligned per-sample G-code line. We exclude proximity and pressure channels following the consistency audit reported in the encoder paper [22], retaining $C = 98$ sensor channels.

Sensor mounting and envelope-extraction pipeline.

The six multi-sensor boards are rigidly bolted to the left/right machine-frame uprights (`frame_12`, `frame_13`, `frame_r2`), adjacent to the spindle housing (`spindle2`), and on the moving Y-bed (`y_bed_3`, `y_bed_4`); each carries an identical 15-channel inventory and an additional 8 controller-side electrical channels are recorded separately. All channels are read at factory-rated sensitivities and envelope-extracted to the released 4 Hz rate (a single-pole IIR rectify-and-low-pass at $f_c = 2$ Hz, decimated last-in-window and clock-aligned across boards), trading the kHz-band content of classical acoustic-emission monitoring [7] for an ingestion-friendly ~ 1.5 kB/s envelope; the firmware pipeline is released so a reproducer can regenerate the aligned CSVs from the raw stream. Full mounting/calibration detail, the per-channel inventory, and the firmware-pipeline steps are in Supplementary Materials Section S36; chip-level part numbers and the electrical-channel mapping are in the encoder paper [22], and the LOMO/LOSO findings (Section 6.11.1, Supplementary Section S5) should be read against that inventory.

The dataset spans nine machining operation classes: `adaptive`, `adaptive150025`, `face`, `face150025`, `pocket`, `pocket150025`, `damageadaptive`, `damageface`, `damagepocket`. The 150025 suffix denotes a variant feed/spindle parameter (150 mm/min feed at 25,000 RPM spindle, holding all other CAM parameters fixed). The damage prefix is assigned by an operational rule rather than a continuous surface-roughness threshold: a run is labelled `damage*` when executed with a tool deliberately worn or chipped prior to the cut (visible cutting-edge defect recorded in the run log), regardless of post-run inspection. The nine classes cover three motion strategies (face, pocket, adaptive) crossed with parameter and condition variants (clean baseline, 150025 parameter variant, damaged-tool variant): the six clean/parameter-variant classes are approximately balanced (15–20 files each) and the three damaged-tool classes are smaller (4–5 files each). The per-class file inventory, distinct G-code-line counts, and aligned-sample counts are released in `audit/operation_class_inventory.json`.

Platform characterization and generalization risk.

The host platform is a Bantam Tools desktop CNC milling machine (cast-aluminum frame, ER11 collet spindle nominally to $\sim 28,000$ RPM, stepper-driven 3-axis gantry, no flood coolant, RS274/NGC-compatible dialect; single carbide end-mill class, single machinable-wax workpiece, dry cutting). This is at the low end of the manufacturing CNC spectrum: production VMCs (Haas/DMG/Okuma class: cast-iron base, BT30/BT40 toolholders, servo drives, flood coolant) differ in vibration amplitude (1–2 orders of magnitude), spectral content, acoustic emission, and motor-current signature (closed-loop servo torque vs. open-loop stepper magnitude); the detailed VMC contrast and the per-regime literature [7,8,12] are restated in the scope-bounding limitation of Section 8.1. The present corpus therefore characterizes the recoverability physics of a single low-amplitude, dry, stepper-driven platform; whether the recoverability factorization transfers to a production VMC is the cross-platform open question of Section 8.6, not a claim the present corpus can settle.

5.2. Preprocessing and Windowing

Sliding sensor windows of $T = 256$ samples (64 seconds at 4 Hz) at stride 64 yield approximately $\sim 1,500$ windows per fold. Each window is centered on a region of continuous cutting and aligned to its overlapping G-code rows. The per-row target formulation (Section 3.3) emits one (W, g_r) pair per G-code row r that fires within window W , yielding $\sim 19,500$ training pairs, $\sim 7,000$ validation pairs, and $\sim 7,500$ test pairs per fold. At 4 Hz across the 98 retained channels in `float32`, the on-line ingestion

budget is ~ 1.5 kB/s, equivalent to ~ 0.13 GB per machine per 24-hour shift uncompressed, well within standard plant-IT storage tiers.

Sampling-rate context.

The 4 Hz sensor sampling rate is load-bearing for what is and is not recoverable. A row-execution-duration audit over the 120-file aligned corpus (21,541 row-execution instances; `audit/gcode_row_durations.json`) shows the median G-code row executes in a single 0.25 s sample and 77.7% of row-execution instances occupy ≤ 1 sample period — temporally unresolvable as distinct transients at 4 Hz. For context, conventional acoustic-emission and vibration tool-condition monitoring samples at ≥ 10 kHz [7]; the present stack is deliberately at the low-rate, low-bandwidth end of the sensing-cost spectrum, and every recoverability result below should be read in that light (full physical-aliasing discussion: Section 8.2).

5.3. Five-Fold File-Level Stratified Cross-Validation

We use file-level stratified five-fold cross-validation to prevent within-file leakage. Each operation class is divided across folds in proportion to its frequency, so each fold contains representative coverage of all nine classes. Within a fold, train and validation splits come from the same fold partition; the test split is the held-out partition.

Closed-vocabulary evaluation regime (load-bearing).

We then run a G-code-line *coverage repair* step (Supplementary Materials Section S20): any G-code line that appears in the test split but not the training partner triggers a file swap between the partners, until every test-line also appears in training. This step does not remove a confound — it *constructs* a deliberate closed-vocabulary evaluation regime in which every test line has been seen verbatim during training of the same fold (97.6% of distinct test lines and 99.0% of test line-instances; Section 8.1). The 5-fold headline numbers must therefore be read as a within-vocabulary classification / near-retrieval result, *not* as open-vocabulary instruction recovery. The matched open-vocabulary number is the leave-one-class-out (LOCO) command accuracy of 0.213 ± 0.191 (Section 6.12); the two should be read side by side throughout this paper.

Within-fold non-independence.

Preprocessing uses overlapping sensor windows (window 256, stride 64, i.e., 75% overlap between adjacent windows from the same file), so adjacent windows within a single file are not statistically independent. File-level disjointness across folds is preserved, but the effective number of independent observations within a fold is smaller than the raw window count. The covariate-shift audit (Section 8.3.0.1) and bootstrap confidence intervals on the 5-fold means use the per-fold mean as the unit of analysis, which sidesteps the within-fold non-independence.

5.4. Baselines and Ablation Designs

We compare G-Code Decoder against the following ablations and baselines, each trained under identical preprocessing, splits, and hyperparameter configuration:

1. **No-shortcuts baseline** (Section 6.2). The headline configuration with positional metadata not exposed to the decoder.
2. **With-shortcuts ablation** (Section 6.10.1). The same model with `window_index`, `total_windows`, and `source_file` hash exposed as additional decoder inputs. Tests whether positional metadata inflates accuracy beyond what sensor signal alone can recover.
3. **Full-window target ablation** (Section 6.10.3). The same encoder but with multi-line per-window targets instead of per-row targets. Tests whether autoregressive row-to-row context within a window resolves the per-row ambiguity discussed in Section 3.3.

4. **Sensor-modality ablation** (Section 6.11). For each of the seven sensor groups, we zero the corresponding channels at the encoder input and evaluate the resulting decoder, across five folds per modality (audio-RMS at $n = 4$; one fold’s ablation run was unrecoverable).
5. **Sequence-classifier (pattern-aware) ablation** (Supplementary Section S8). A sequence-classifier head trained jointly with the legacy-token head predicts which whole G-code line the model is reconstructing and biases the token distribution toward that line’s tokens.
6. **Vocabulary-precision ablation** (Supplementary Section S8). A coarser 2-digit numeric bucketing reduces vocabulary size by approximately $5\times$.
7. **Noise-augmentation ablation** (Section 6.13). Gaussian noise injection on sensor channels, feature dropout, and token masking during training [28,29,59].
8. **Leave-one-class-out generalization** (Section 6.12). For each of the nine operation classes, train without that class in the training partition and evaluate on its held-out test samples.

5.5. Statistical Analysis

For each five-fold ablation, we report mean and standard deviation across folds, one-way analysis of variance (ANOVA) against the no-shortcuts baseline, and Cohen’s d effect size. ANOVA is computed with SciPy [64]; bootstrap 95% confidence intervals use 10,000 percentile resamples with NumPy default-RNG seeded at 42 (matched to the calibration-split convention of Section 6.7). For paired comparisons we additionally report the Hedges’ small-sample-corrected effect size $g_z = J \cdot d_z$ with $J = 1 - 3 / (4(n - 1) - 1)$; at $n = 5$ folds, $J \approx 0.80$, so g_z is uniformly $\sim 20\%$ smaller than d_z throughout this paper. Significance levels are reported as $*p < 0.05$, $**p < 0.01$, $***p < 0.001$. Reported $\pm$ values follow each upstream audit script’s native convention (NumPy default population s.d. for headline / sensor-ablation tables, ddof=1 sample s.d. for the K -spectrum and no-numeric tables); the typical $\sim 10\text{--}15\%$ spread between the two conventions at $n = 5$ does not change any significance call or deployment recommendation.

Inferential scope and a caution on $n = 5$.

The unit of analysis is the per-fold mean, so every parametric test reported here is computed on $n = 5$ observations per group (the audio-RMS modality-ablation group is $n = 4$, one fold unrecoverable); we therefore treat all p -values as *descriptive* rather than confirmatory, read the bootstrap 95% intervals as a smoothed (not coverage-calibrated) indication of cross-fold spread, take the nonparametric test (Mann–Whitney U , Wilcoxon) as the primary inferential statement, and rest the conclusions on effect sizes large relative to the cross-fold spread rather than on threshold-crossing p -values; single-fold pilots are labeled and excluded from every quantitative or deployment claim. The full caution is in Supplementary Materials Section S38.

5.6. Software and Compute

The decoder is implemented in PyTorch and trained on NVIDIA RTX A6000 GPUs. Preprocessing and analysis use scikit-learn [55] — including the HistGradientBoosting non-neural baseline (Section 6.1), which we use in place of XGBoost [65] because the available XGBoost build was CUDA-only and failed on the CPU inference host (Supplementary Section S19.8) — and SciPy [64]. Hyperparameter sweeps were tracked with Weights and Biases; full code and configuration files are released with the manuscript.

6. Results

We address the four research questions stated in Section 1. Section 6.2 establishes the RQ1 headline; Sections 6.3–6.10.2 unpack it along the categorical-versus-numeric axis; Sections 6.10, 6.11, and 6.12 address RQ2–RQ4; Supplementary Section S8 and Section 6.13 report supplementary cross-cuts.

6.1. Non-Neural Baseline Comparison

Two lightweight classifiers on the *same* mean-pooled encoder embedding the decoder consumes (a scikit-learn HistGradientBoosting (HGB) tree-booster and the two-layer MLP probe of Section 4.5) anchor the headline and isolate the contribution of the decoder’s autoregressive multi-head architecture from the encoder embedding itself. Both hit the always-most-common-class data-coverage ceiling on the binary fields (≈ 0.88 *has-X*, 0.99 *has-F*), which are the correct reference points for the decoder’s per-field numbers, and both fall well short on multi-class command identity (HGB macro-F1 0.23, MLP ≈ 0.24), consistent with the per-row modal-row ceiling (Section 4.5). HGB does reach macro-F1 0.86 on the one genuinely within-window-diverse field (*has-Z*), confirming the pooled embedding carries some per-row Z signal. The full per-task baseline table and analysis are in Supplementary Materials Section S23.

6.2. RQ1: Headline Accuracy and Per-Field Recoverability

Table 2 reports the headline accuracies and macro precision/recall/F1 for each prediction head across five folds, under both teacher-forced and autoregressive evaluation. The categorical heads — 0.9838 ± 0.0085 type accuracy, 0.8875 ± 0.0558 command accuracy, 0.9931 ± 0.0036 parameter-type accuracy, and 0.9888 ± 0.0063 pooled motion-sign accuracy — are identical under both regimes because the heads are per-position classifiers on the encoder memory and do not consume the autoregressive token stream. The autoregressive-token heads diverge between regimes: token accuracy is 0.7811 ± 0.0216 (TF) vs. 0.2148 ± 0.0685 (AR), and numeric accuracy is 0.5850 ± 0.0331 (TF) vs. 0.1038 ± 0.0322 (AR). Sequence exact-match is reported only under AR (per-fold $\{0.015, 0.000, 0.028, 0.056, 0.032\}$, mean 0.0263 ± 0.0185 ; `audit/ar_aggregate.json`); a sequence-level TF score is not separately well-defined because the metric requires generating a full output, and under teacher forcing the model is conditioned on the true prefix at every position, so the resulting “sequence” is the per-token TF accuracy collapsed to an all-or-nothing test. The AR sequence number of 0.0263 is therefore the deployment-relevant figure; Section 7.3 unpacks the mode-collapse mechanism behind the AR drop, and the evidence for partial (rather than total) collapse is the output-diversity audit reported there. Figure 3 visualizes the fold-to-fold variance for each metric; the per-class precision, recall, and F1 for the command and parameter-type heads are charted in Supplementary Materials Section S24 (Figure S32).

These categorical and autoregressive numbers factorize cleanly along the head boundary that Section 3.4 formalizes: TF/AR invariance is a structural property of the encoder-memory classifiers, and the TF–AR gap on the token and numeric heads is the exposure-bias signature of autoregressive coupling. The two regimes therefore characterize different things, and reading them together is what makes the per-field recoverability story tractable in the sections that follow. We are deliberate about terminology: we reserve the word *recovery* for the per-field categorical heads (command, parameter-type, sign), which are sensor-conditioned and TF/AR-invariant. End-to-end generative reconstruction is *at floor* — autoregressive whole-sequence exact-match is 0.0263 ± 0.0185 , i.e. fewer than 3% of windows are reproduced verbatim — so this paper makes no claim of generative G-code reconstruction; the contribution is per-field categorical recoverability, not toolpath reconstruction.

Robustness to the numeric-target patch.

The numeric-digit target pipeline contained a float-epsilon artifact at the finest decimal slots, corrected by a round-encoding retrain (`checkpoints/full_window_5fold_patched/`). The headline and categorical metrics are *robust* to the patch (patched vs. released 5-fold TF: command 0.891/0.888, token 0.774/0.781, numeric 0.570/0.585, type 0.983/0.984, param-type 0.993/0.993, AR sequence 0.029/0.026; all of these pooled/headline metrics drift ≤ 1.5 pp), so we report Table 2 on the released checkpoint and use the patched retrain only for the numeric tier (per-axis MAE, the per-digit bathtub of Section 6.4), where the correction is concentrated — it moves the finest digit slot (slot-5) accuracy from 0.77 to 0.99 while leaving the pooled numeric metric near-unchanged. The supervisory `target_tokens`

are identical between runs; the corpus-weighted target-correction rate is 32.5% of numeric positions (30.1% terminal-zero $9 \rightarrow 0$ fixes).

These numbers must be read with three caveats in view. **First, they are closed-vocabulary, in-distribution** (coverage-repair regime, Section 5.3; 97.6%/99.0% verbatim test-line overlap), so the command-accuracy 0.8875 is a within-vocabulary classification result and *not* a deployment-ready open-vocabulary number. Second, the frozen encoder was trained on the same file-level fold partitions, so the headline 0.888 contains an unmeasured representation-reuse component on top of the per-instruction sensor recovery this paper claims (see Supplementary Materials Section S21). Third, three companion numbers anchor the headline: (i) the leave-one-class-out (LOCO) cross-class command accuracy of 0.213 ± 0.191 as the open-vocabulary floor (Section 6.12); (ii) the class-prior control (Section 7.1.0.2), which is the right home for the within-class sensor-driven increment over the operation-class modal predictor; and (iii) the AR collapse described above.

Table 2. Headline test-set metrics for the G-Code Decoder under 5-fold file-level cross-validation, full-window targets, no positional metadata exposed. Mean $\pm$ std over 5 folds. Two evaluation regimes are reported: teacher-forced (TF), where each step receives the ground-truth previous token, and autoregressive (AR, greedy / beam-width 1), where the decoder consumes its own previous predictions. The categorical heads — type, command, parameter-type, sign — report identical accuracies under both regimes because they are independent per-position classifiers on the encoder memory; only the autoregressive-token heads (token, sequence, numeric) diverge.

Head	TF Accuracy	AR Accuracy	Macro Precision	Macro F1
Token	0.7811 ± 0.0216	0.2148 ± 0.0685	0.4099 ± 0.0406	0.3899 ± 0.0405
Sequence [‡]	—	0.0263 ± 0.0185	—	—
Type	0.9838 ± 0.0085	0.9838 ± 0.0085	0.9091 ± 0.0352	0.8833 ± 0.0451
Command	0.8875 ± 0.0558	0.8875 ± 0.0558	0.9342 ± 0.0407	0.8790 ± 0.1084
Param-type	0.9931 ± 0.0036	0.9931 ± 0.0036	0.9914 ± 0.0073	0.9857 ± 0.0130
Sign	0.9888 ± 0.0063	0.9888 ± 0.0063	0.9658 ± 0.0215	0.9724 ± 0.0157
Numeric (overall digit)	0.5850 ± 0.0331	0.1038 ± 0.0322	—	—

Macro precision/recall/F1 are unweighted means over all observed classes; values are stable across TF and AR for the categorical heads, so a single column is reported. Numeric is the digit-head accuracy pooled across all six digit positions; the per-position bathtub is shown in Figure 5 (Section 6.4). The TF / AR gap on the token and numeric heads is the exposure-bias signature analyzed in Section 7.3: the decoder’s categorical signal is robust to autoregressive deployment, while its full-sequence token reproduction is not. [‡] Sequence exact-match is reported only under AR; a sequence-level TF score is not separately well-defined (see Section 6.2).

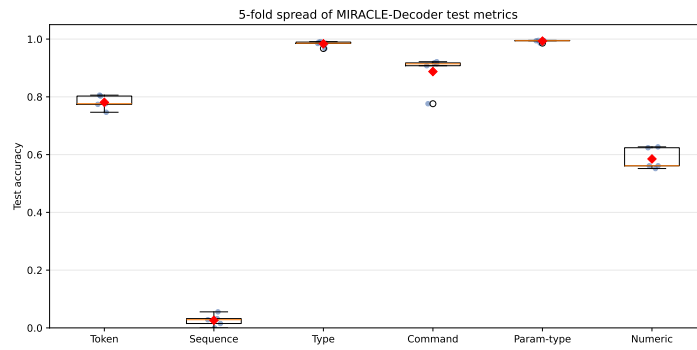


Figure 3. Five-fold cross-validation spread per headline metric. Each metric shows the individual per-fold values (blue points) and their mean (red diamond); token, numeric, type, command, and parameter-type are teacher-forced, while sequence exact-match is reported autoregressively (the only regime in which it is well-defined, Section 3.4). The categorical heads (type, command, parameter-type) are tight across folds; the command-head fold-1 outlier (0.776 vs. folds 2–5 at 0.91–0.92) tracks the -4.4 pp Z-coverage covariate shift audited in Section 8.3.0.1. The full teacher-forced-vs-autoregressive contrast on the token and numeric heads ($0.78 \rightarrow 0.21$ token, $0.59 \rightarrow 0.10$ numeric — the exposure-bias signature of Section 7.3) is reported in Table 2, not in this single-regime spread.

The macro F1 of the command head (0.879 ± 0.108) is moderately lower than its raw accuracy (0.8875 ± 0.0558), reflecting the long-tailed class distribution. G1 carries ~ 830 test instances per fold; G3 ~ 315 ; G0 ~ 65 ; G53 and M30 ~ 6 each. Recovery is strong across all six classes (per-class F1 in Table 3); the lowest is G2 at 0.82, attributed by the confusion matrix (Supplementary Materials Section S24, Figure S33) to bidirectional G1/G2 confusion in arc-rich windows — the largest off-diagonal cells $G1 \rightarrow G2$ ($n = 373$) and $G2 \rightarrow G1$ ($n = 253$) are directionally symmetric, indicating local-pattern ambiguity between linear cuts and arcs sharing the same axis signature rather than a one-way bias. Per-class minimum detectable effects (power analysis: ~ 2.3 pp on G1, ~ 8 pp on G2/G3, ~ 19 pp on G0 at $\alpha = 0.05$, $\beta = 0.20$; audit/extended_rigor_audits.json, Section 8.3) bound the resolution of the per-class column; differences below these sizes are not statistically distinguishable from sampling noise. No class collapses.

Table 3. Per-class precision / recall / F1 for the motion-command head, 5-fold mean $\pm$ std. Support is the approximate number of test instances per fold; per-class confidence intervals widen for the smallest-support classes, but no class collapses in 5-fold-mean F1 (the smallest-support classes G53 and M30, $n \approx 6$ /fold, nonetheless show wide per-fold recall variance and are underpowered).

Class	Precision	Recall	F1	Support
G0	0.946 ± 0.052	0.890 ± 0.142	0.917 ± 0.079	~ 65
G1	0.929 ± 0.024	0.886 ± 0.097	0.905 ± 0.049	~ 830
G2	0.811 ± 0.119	0.851 ± 0.039	0.823 ± 0.067	~ 400
G3	0.927 ± 0.072	0.913 ± 0.063	0.917 ± 0.043	~ 315
G53	1.000 ± 0.000	0.846 ± 0.327	0.876 ± 0.206	~ 6
M30	0.950 ± 0.112	0.769 ± 0.213	0.836 ± 0.150	~ 6

The parameter-type head shows a different pattern: macro F1 0.986 ± 0.013 closely tracks accuracy because the four well-supported axis letters (X, Y, Z, R) are each predicted at $F1 \geq 0.989$; the thin-support F axis reaches $F1 0.958 \pm 0.042$ on only ~ 40 test instances. Table 4 shows the breakdown.

Table 4. Per-class precision / recall / F1 for the parameter-type head (axis letters), 5-fold mean $\pm$ std on V8 full_window. The five axes appearing in the corpus are reported; remaining trained labels (I, J, K, S, P) do not appear in the test splits and are omitted (see Table 5).

Class	Precision	Recall	F1	Support
X	0.989 ± 0.008	0.997 ± 0.002	0.993 ± 0.004	$\sim 13,500$
Y	0.994 ± 0.003	0.993 ± 0.005	0.993 ± 0.003	$\sim 13,300$
Z	0.995 ± 0.003	0.995 ± 0.005	0.995 ± 0.002	$\sim 4,900$
F	0.965 ± 0.027	0.952 ± 0.075	0.958 ± 0.042	~ 40
R	0.993 ± 0.009	0.986 ± 0.013	0.989 ± 0.010	$\sim 2,500$

The per-class precision/recall/F1 bar charts for the command, parameter-type, and type heads, and the row-normalized confusion matrices for the same three heads, are reproduced in Supplementary Materials Section S24 (Figures S32 and S33): recovery is strong across all six command classes (F1 0.82–0.92), the off-diagonal mass concentrates on the G2/G3 pair, and the parameter-type head is near-perfect on X/Y/Z/R.

The motion-sign and per-digit-value confusion matrices — visual corroboration of the per-axis sign accuracies reported in Table 6 and the diagonal-plus-adjacent-band structure that follows from the per-digit entropy decomposition in Section 6.4 — are in Supplementary Section S13.4 (Figure S19).

6.3. Per-Axis Recoverability

For each axis letter we extract three quantities from the decoded G-code: (i) *has-axis*, whether the axis appears in the predicted block; (ii) *sign*, the sign of the motion when the axis is present (POSITIVE, NEGATIVE, ABSENT); and (iii) *value MAE*, the regression mean absolute error of the numeric value, computed only over samples where both the predicted and true blocks carry the axis. Table 6 reports these per axis. Table 5 provides the per-field frequency context needed to interpret Table 6: fields with near-zero presence cannot be meaningfully evaluated regardless of model accuracy.

Table 5. Per-field positive-support frequency in the V8 corpus. Accuracy numbers for a field with near-zero support (e.g. F, S, I, J in per_row mode) are dominated by the always-absent baseline and cannot be interpreted as evidence of sensor-driven recoverability. Source: direct count over the V8 preprocessed NPZ files, fold 1.

Field	per_row train	per_row test	full_window train	full_window test
X	90.4%	88.5%	100.0%	100.0%
Y	88.6%	86.6%	100.0%	100.0%
Z	35.8%	31.4%	29.7%	32.6%
F	0.4%	0.6%	18.8%	22.0%
S	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%
R	15.2%	17.2%	88.1%	88.6%
I	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%
J	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%	0.0%

Bold cells indicate fields whose accuracy in Table 6 cannot be meaningfully evaluated due to insufficient positive support; recovery of these fields would require a corpus with non-trivial F/S/I/J coverage, beyond the present data.

Table 6. Per-axis G-code recoverability across 5 folds (mean $\pm$ std). **Value-MAE column re-derived on the float-epsilon-corrected retrain** (checkpoints/full_window_5fold_patched/; audit/patched_numeric_analysis.json); the categorical (has-axis, sign) columns are checkpoint-invariant. *has-axis Acc / F1* are the classification metrics for whether the axis is present in the decoded text; *sign* is the direction of motion (POSITIVE / NEGATIVE / ABSENT); *value MAE* is the mean absolute error of the numeric value, computed only on samples where both the predicted and true G-code carry the axis. The headline recoverability claim is restricted to the four well-supported axes **X, Y, Z, R**. The F row (†) is reported *for the full-window regime only*, where F appears in 22% of windows; in the per-row regime F support is only 0.6% and is not evaluable (Table 5). I, J, S have effectively zero positive support in both regimes and are not evaluable. The per-axis sign-accuracy asymmetry (Y 0.997 vs. X 0.942 vs. Z 0.938) is *prior-driven*: Z is the only sign-bearing axis whose sign carries non-trivial classification load ($H_Z^{\text{sign}} = 1.04$ bits), whereas Y’s sign is prior-deterministic ($H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$ bits) and X’s is near-deterministic ($H_X^{\text{sign}} = 0.38$ bits); the per-axis sign source-entropy decomposition is developed in the companion limit paper [33], so the high Y/X sign accuracy reflects the prior, not sensor discrimination.

Axis	has-axis Acc	has-axis F1	Sign Acc	Value MAE	Presence Recall
X	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	0.942 $\pm$ 0.033	0.248 $\pm$ 0.140	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000
Y	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	0.997 $\pm$ 0.006	0.205 $\pm$ 0.080	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000
Z	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	0.938 $\pm$ 0.023	0.009 $\pm$ 0.006	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000
R	0.994 $\pm$ 0.012	0.983 $\pm$ 0.034	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	0.021 $\pm$ 0.011	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000
F†	0.960 $\pm$ 0.023	0.936 $\pm$ 0.038	1.000 $\pm$ 0.000	1.115 $\pm$ 0.350 (inch/min)	0.851 $\pm$ 0.093
S, I, J	insufficient support; see Table 5		—	—	—

X, Y, Z, R presence is fully recovered. The sign asymmetry is prior-driven, not a sensor-separability ranking: Y (0.997) and X (0.942) sign accuracy reflect their near-deterministic sign priors ($H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$, $H_X^{\text{sign}} = 0.38$ bits), while Z (0.938) is the only axis whose sign is genuinely balanced ($H_Z^{\text{sign}} = 1.04$ bits) and therefore the only one carrying real sensor-driven sign signal. Value MAE is small for Z (0.009) and R (0.021) and larger for X/Y (0.21–0.25), all in inches (the corpus’s native unit; the platform runs in inch mode). Against the per-axis coordinate span over the corpus (X $\approx$ 3.8, Y $\approx$ 3.8, Z $\approx$ 0.7, R $\approx$ 7.9 in) these MAEs are $\approx$ 6.5% and 5.4% of span on the large planar X/Y axes but only $\approx$ 1.2% and 0.3% on the shallow-depth Z and arc-radius R axes — coordinate value is recovered to coarse resolution on X/Y and near-exactly on Z/R. These are the patched-retrain values (Z is 0.009 patched vs. 0.012 on the released checkpoint recomputed identically; the 0.042 in the prior draft table was a pre-patch analysis-pipeline artifact, not a checkpoint difference). The F-row MAE is on a different scale because feed-rate values themselves are larger ($\sim$ 10–100 inch/min in this corpus).

Four patterns emerge. First, axis-presence detection is uniformly high: X, Y, Z reach perfect 5-fold has-axis accuracy (1.000 $\pm$ 0.000), R 0.994 $\pm$ 0.012, and F 0.960 $\pm$ 0.023 on its thin support. Second, motion-sign recovery is axis-asymmetric, but the asymmetry is *prior-driven*, not a sensor-separability ranking: Y-sign (0.997 $\pm$ 0.006) and X-sign (0.942 $\pm$ 0.033) ride near-deterministic sign priors ($H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$, $H_X^{\text{sign}} = 0.38$ bits), while Z-sign (0.938 $\pm$ 0.023) is the only sensor-bearing sign axis, the only one whose sign distribution is genuinely balanced ($H_Z^{\text{sign}} = 1.04$ bits) — so Z’s lower accuracy reflects a harder sensor-driven binary classification, not weaker sensor coupling. Third, the patched-retrain numeric value MAE (audit/patched_numeric_analysis.json) is small for Z (0.009 patched; 0.012 on the released checkpoint recomputed identically) and arc-radius R (0.021) but larger for X (0.248) and Y (0.205), all in inches, consistent with the per-digit decomposition (Section 6.4) localizing the loss to middle digit positions; the wide X fold spread ($\pm$ 0.14) reflects variation in large X-axis moves. Fourth, spindle (S) and arc parameters (I, J) have effectively zero positive support (Table 5) and cannot be meaningfully evaluated. Figure 4 summarizes the per-axis has-axis F1, sign accuracy, and value MAE side by side. The per-axis distribution of $|\hat{v} - v|$ that the value-MAE column averages over (Supplementary Materials Section S24, Figure S34) is bimodal: X/Y/Z errors are heavy-tailed (substantial mass at 10^{-2} and 10^{-1} -inch magnitudes), R errors are tightly concentrated near exact-match (the discrete arc-radius vocabulary), and the per-axis MAE summary in Table 6 is therefore a midpoint between two structurally different regimes within each axis, not a unimodal noise floor.

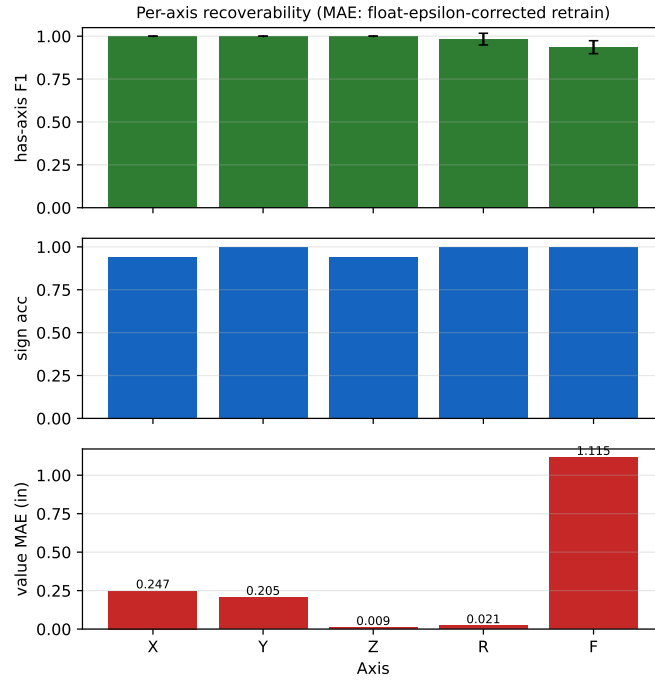


Figure 4. Per-axis G-code recoverability (5-fold mean): has-axis F1 (top), motion-sign accuracy (middle), and numeric-value MAE (bottom, inches). The categorical-vs-numeric split is visible: has-axis and sign reach high accuracy on the well-supported axes (X, Y, Z, R), while value MAE is the limiting factor for full coordinate reconstruction. The asymmetry in per-axis sign accuracies ($Y \approx 1.00$ vs $Z \approx 0.94$) reflects the near-deterministic sign prior on Y versus the genuinely balanced sign distribution on Z; the companion limit paper [33] accounts for this through the per-axis sign-entropy decomposition.

6.4. Numeric Digit Head Decomposition

The digit head achieves 0.5850 ± 0.0331 mean accuracy under teacher-forced evaluation, dropping to 0.1038 ± 0.0322 under autoregressive evaluation (Table 2); the per-position decomposition below is computed at the TF condition on the float-epsilon-corrected retrain (audit/patched_numeric_analysis.json), so the entropy and accuracy axes are now consistent at the finest digits. The pooled 5-fold per-slot accuracy is bathtub-shaped (Figure 5): slot 0 (10^1 , tens) reaches 0.9999; slot 1 (10^0 , units) 0.9223 ± 0.0180 ; slot 2 (tenths) 0.7478 ± 0.0253 ; slot 3 (hundredths) 0.5465 ± 0.0269 ; slot 4 (10^{-3} , thousandths) bottoms out at 0.4165 ± 0.0239 — the *true precision floor*, since the thousandths is the finest digit the CAM postprocessor emits; slot 5 (10^{-4} , ten-thousandths) returns to 0.9931 ± 0.0067 because the V8 tokenizer quantizes X/Y/Z onto a 0.001 grid ($p_X = p_Y = p_Z = 10^{-3}$; Supplementary Materials Section S22), making the ten-thousandths digit of the tokenized target structurally near-zero entropy (0.31 bits) and therefore deterministically reproduced rather than information-bearing (this is a tokenizer representation choice, not a source or sensor limit; the companion limit paper [33] shows R, quantized on a 0.0001 grid, retains its ten-thousandths digit).

The decoder behaves, in short, as a *coarse-resolution coordinate recoverer*: it reproduces the physically- or geometrically-constrained high-order digit positions and the deterministic trailing digit, and is bounded at a near-uniform-noise ceiling at the thousandths place where the CAM postprocessor’s interpolation residuals dominate. The patched correction strengthens the entropy–accuracy anticorrelation and makes the slot-5 “upturn” an honest low-entropy (deterministic) structure rather than the float-epsilon encoding artifact it appeared to be before the retrain.

The shape of this profile is explained by the per-(axis, slot) source entropy of the toolpath corpus — the digit head tracks an information-theoretic ceiling that is near-uniform ($\approx \log_2 10$ bits) at the thousandths and low on the physically constrained high-order places and the deterministic trailing

digit — characterized in the companion limit paper [33] (corrected pooled $n = 6$ Pearson -0.89 ; per-(axis,slot) $n = 30$ Pearson -0.83).

Per-axis sign recovery (Z is the only sensor-bearing sign axis).

The motion-sign head’s 0.9888 headline accuracy (Table 2) is dominated by prior-deterministic axes and should not be read as a sensor-recovery figure. Z is the only axis whose sign carries non-trivial classification load ($H_Z^{\text{sign}} = 1.04$ bits; coordinates split roughly evenly between positive rapids above the stock and negative cuts into the stock); Y motion is $\sim 99\%$ positive ($H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$ bits) and $X \sim 93\%$ positive ($H_X^{\text{sign}} = 0.38$ bits), so the head’s high accuracy on those axes is the sign prior re-expressed, not sensor evidence, and would fail on a workpiece of different orientation or origin. The deployment-relevant per-axis sign accuracies are therefore the X/Y/Z numbers in Table 6 (0.94/1.00/0.94 5-fold means), with Z carrying essentially all the discriminative work; the companion limit paper [33] quantifies this asymmetry through the per-axis sign-entropy decomposition.

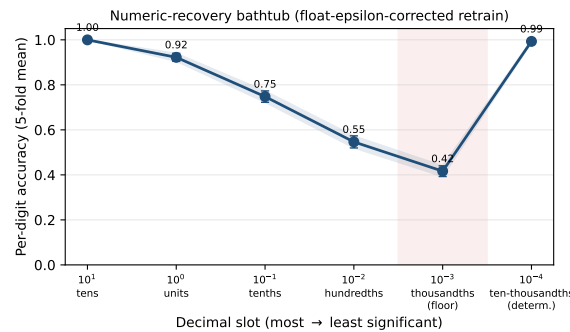


Figure 5. The numeric-recovery “bathtub”: pooled per-digit-position accuracy (5-fold mean $\pm$ std, teacher-forced; float-epsilon-corrected retrain). Slot 0 is recovered at 1.00, accuracy descends monotonically to the precision floor at slot 4 (10^{-3} , thousandths; 0.42 — the finest digit the CAM postprocessor emits), and slot 5 (10^{-4}) returns to 0.99 because the V8 tokenizer quantizes X/Y/Z onto a 0.001 grid, discarding the (near-uniform, ~ 3.31 -bit) source ten-thousandths digit; the tokenized target is therefore a structural zero reproduced trivially as a representation artifact, not an information-bearing recovery (companion paper [33]). Source: `audit/patched_numeric_analysis.json`.

6.5. Per-Operation-Class Recoverability

Autoregressive predictions stratify sharply by operation class, and the stratification has a single mechanistic cause rather than a per-class capability gradient. One class — face ($n = 144$ test windows) — reaches token 0.56 / numeric 0.40 against a pooled AR baseline of 0.215/0.104, while every other class falls into a narrow 0.09–0.25 token / 0.01–0.15 numeric band. The most-frequent non-facing class, pocket150025 ($n = 124$), sits at 0.09/0.01 — floor-level despite ample test support. This is the per-class signature of the mode-collapse mechanism analysed in Section 7.3: the corpus-modal AR output the decoder converges to is a facing-pattern toolpath, so face windows score by coincidental agreement with the modal trajectory rather than by genuine sensor-driven discrimination, and any class with a different toolpath signature scores near floor regardless of test sample count. The headline categorical recoverability (Section 6.2) is therefore the central per-class claim; the per-class *numeric* story is constant-mode-collapse with one outlier and should not be read as “face is easier to decode.” Full per-fold breakdown, methodology, and per-class numbers in Supplementary Materials Section S1.

6.6. Test-Time Sensor-Noise Sensitivity

Re-evaluating fold 1 of the baseline checkpoint while injecting additive Gaussian noise into the frozen-encoder memory shows the categorical heads are essentially flat across $\sigma \in [0, 2]$ (up to twice the signal magnitude): command-head accuracy stays in 0.78–0.82, type at 0.97, parameter-type at 0.98.

This probes the encoder-to-decoder interface (robustness to conditioning-vector perturbation), not raw-sensor degradation, and the deployment-relevant reading is that the categorical-recovery story holds with surprising robustness to encoder-memory perturbation — the relevant failure mode for a frozen-encoder deployment validated upstream. Full per- σ results, the figure, and the sign-head audit-script caveat (which does *not* affect the headline sign accuracy) in Supplementary Materials Section S10.1.

6.7. Calibration of the Categorical Heads

A high-accuracy classifier may still be poorly calibrated. The type and parameter-type heads are well-calibrated out of the box (fold-1 ECE 0.015 and 0.020 at 10 bins), while the command head is moderately *overconfident* (fold-1 ECE 0.122, MCE 0.207 at 0.780 accuracy against 0.902 mean confidence) — consistent with the LOCO collapse signature (Section 6.12): it places high mass on G1 even when the true command is not G1. Post-hoc temperature scaling (a single learned T per head, fit by NLL on a held-out calibration half of each fold) reduces command-head cross-fold ECE from 0.050 ± 0.038 to 0.020 ± 0.011 without changing accuracy ($T_{\text{cmd}} = 1.34 \pm 0.25$ does not move the argmax); we recommend it as the default deployment-time calibration step, with the Brier/Murphy decomposition confirming it targets the reliability term and preserves discrimination. Full ECE/MCE breakdown, Brier/Murphy decomposition, per-fold fitted temperatures, the reliability diagram, and the parameter-type worst-bin MCE trade-off caveat in Supplementary Materials Section S2.

6.8. Output-Position Failure Distribution

A token-position breakdown isolates a single concentrated failure rather than a distributed error budget. In the per-row formulation, position 1 (the first address letter following the command token) is recovered at only 0.240 — a sharp drop from 0.761 at position 0 and 0.743–0.929 at positions 3–5 — the signature of within-window row-identification ambiguity. The full-window formulation supplies the previous row’s output as autoregressive context and lifts position 1 to 0.622 ± 0.027 , a +38 pp gain on position-1 token recovery that localizes the full-window win (Section 6.10.3) to row-disambiguation; past the row boundary both formulations recover monotonically (0.900–0.940 through position 100), so the position-1 failure is structural ambiguity, not length degradation. Full per-position table and curve in Supplementary Materials Section S10.5.

6.9. Failure-Mode Analysis

Bucketing the 20 worst-edit-distance sequences per fold (100 across 5 folds) by the structural difference between predicted and target token streams gives: dropped command 17, wrong command 1, hallucinated command 8, value-only error 37, and “other” 37 (same-command structural mismatches dominated by $Y \leftrightarrow X$ address-letter swaps). Command-identity failures together account for 26% of the worst sequences and the worst failures are predominantly structural rather than arithmetic; Section 7.1.0.1 interprets this. Representative examples per bucket are in Supplementary Section S12.

6.10. RQ2: Metadata vs. Sensor and Per-Row vs. Full-Window

RQ2 asks two related questions: (i) does positional metadata inflate accuracy beyond what sensor data alone provides? and (ii) does the per-row target formulation introduce a row-identification ambiguity that full-window targets resolve? Table 7 provides headline numbers; Sections 6.10.1 and 6.10.3 unpack the two effects.

6.10.1. Positional-Metadata Ablation

Re-training the decoder *with* positional metadata exposed (window index, total-window count, source-file hash) produces the per-metric effect sizes in Table 7 (the + *positional metadata* row). One-way ANOVA across the 5 folds of each configuration shows a clean factorization:

Table 7. Ablation matrix. Each ablation row reports both teacher-forced (TF) and autoregressive (AR, beam-width-1 greedy) test accuracy where the metric depends on the regime. The categorical heads (type, command, param-type, sign) are independent classifiers on the encoder memory and report identical accuracies under both regimes; a single value is given. The pattern-aware row is a fold-1 pilot (Supplementary Section S8); the sensor-modality effect is summarized here and broken out per modality in Table 11 (5-fold; audio-RMS $n = 4$). Numbers from outputs/decoder20260511/audit/ar_aggregate.json (5-fold AR) and the per-fold metrics.json (5-fold TF), commit db246b0.

Configuration	Token (TF / AR)	Sequence (AR)	Type	Command	Param-type	Numeric (TF / AR)
Baseline (no shortcuts, full-window)	0.781 ± 0.022 / 0.215 ± 0.069	0.026 ± 0.019	0.984 ± 0.009	0.888 ± 0.056	0.993 ± 0.004	0.585 ± 0.033 / 0.104 ± 0.032
+ positional metadata	0.754 ± 0.033 / 0.290 ± 0.016	0.102 ± 0.022	0.982 ± 0.011	0.882 ± 0.056	0.993 ± 0.004	0.532 ± 0.054 / 0.184 ± 0.017
+ sequence classifier (pattern-aware, fold-1)	0.694 / -	0.010	0.975	0.536	0.952	0.392 / -
- any single sensor modality (5-fold; rms $n = 4$)	command 0.449-0.484 (uniform -40 to -44 pp; between-modality ANOVA $p = 0.998$); token ~0.74; type / param-type within ~1-4 pp of baseline. Full per-modality breakdown: Table 11.					

The TF / AR gap is the exposure-bias signature analyzed in Section 7.3: token and numeric heads consume their own previous predictions under AR and accumulate compounding errors over the ~1,000-token full-window sequence. Categorical heads are unaffected. The + positional metadata ablation reverses sign across regimes: under TF it is mildly harmful or neutral, under AR it produces +7.5 pp on token, +8.0 pp on numeric, and +7.6 pp on sequence, with ~4× tighter fold-to-fold variance on the token head. Section 6.10.1 interprets this as mitigation of autoregressive mode collapse rather than a positional shortcut.

- Categorical heads — unaffected by positional metadata (negligible effect sizes, $\Delta \approx 0$ on command/type/param-type/sign, $F < 0.05$ under both AR and TF). At $n = 5$ folds per group these are descriptive null effects, not confirmed equivalences.
- Autoregressive heads — token $\Delta = +7.5$ pp ($F = 4.5$); sequence $\Delta = +7.6$ pp ($F = 27$); numeric $\Delta = +8.0$ pp ($F = 19$). The effect sizes and the consistent positive sign across folds, not the p -values, carry the conclusion: with $n = 5$ folds per group every p -value here is descriptive, so we report it to one significant figure ($p \sim 10^{-3}$ for the sequence and numeric heads, $p \sim 0.07$ for the borderline token head) and rest the claim on the +7.5–8.0 pp positive increments. Under TF evaluation the token and numeric heads show no positive increment (both small and non-positive in 5-fold means).

Categorical heads (command, type, parameter-type, sign, per-axis presence and sign) are robustly recoverable from sensors alone, and exposing positional metadata does not improve them under any evaluation regime. The with-shortcuts 5-fold command-accuracy mean is 0.882 ± 0.056 (Table 7), statistically indistinguishable from the no-shortcuts 0.8875 ± 0.0558 baseline. These heads are independent per-position classifiers on the encoder memory; their accuracies are identical under teacher-forced and autoregressive decoding (Section 3.4).

Autoregressive-token heads (token, numeric, sequence) show a more nuanced picture that depends on the evaluation regime. Under teacher-forced eval the position metadata provides no lift and is mildly harmful (−2.7 pp on token, −5.3 pp on numeric in 5-fold means). Under autoregressive deployment-true evaluation, however, the picture reverses: position metadata produces approximately +7.5 pp on token and +8.0 pp on numeric accuracy (Section 7.3). The mechanism is mitigation of autoregressive mode collapse: in the no-shortcuts AR setting, the decoder converges to a corpus-modal token sequence regardless of sensor input; exposing the window index gives the decoder a per-window anchor that breaks the modal trajectory on a fraction of test samples. Position metadata is therefore not a “shortcut” that inflates sweep-time accuracy; it is a deployment-time disambiguation signal that partially compensates for exposure bias in long-sequence autoregressive decoding. Bootstrap percentile cross-fold spread intervals (95%, not coverage-calibrated at $n = 5$) for both configurations appear in Table 9.

Decomposing the collapse mechanism.

The position-metadata mitigation establishes that per-window anchoring partly breaks the modal trajectory; a complementary no-numeric retraining ablation decomposes *what the collapse is made of*, isolating a measurable numeric-token-desynchronization contribution from a dominant intrinsic

mode-collapse of the structural token stream itself — the latter, not the numeric vocabulary, being the deployment-relevant bottleneck (full statistics in Section 6.10.2).

Multiple-comparisons correction on the drilled grid.

The per-class / per-axis / per-position ANOVA grid (methodology in Supplementary Section S19.7) covers 8 ablation configurations (noise augmentation and the seven zeroed-modality ablations) against the no-shortcuts baseline, drilled across the per-class precision/recall/F1 for type, command, parameter-type, sign, and the per-digit-value / per-position numeric heads, for a total of 840 (ablation, drilled-metric) tests (audit/anova_per_class_results.json). Benjamini–Hochberg false-discovery-rate (BH-FDR) adjustment ($\alpha = 0.05$) flags 457/840; the more conservative Holm–Bonferroni adjustment flags 167/840. We read this as a *robustness sweep*, not as 457 established effects: each test is an $n = 5$ ANOVA, so FDR/Holm control the decision rule’s error rate but cannot supply the power a five-point test lacks. The signal is carried by a few large-effect ablations that need no multiplicity machinery—the noise-augmentation ablation (per-class command F1 drops of 0.3–0.7 for G0/G1/G2/G3) and the uniform command-head degradation shared by all seven modality ablations (consistent with the non-significant between-modality ANOVA in Section 6.11); per-class cells with $n_{\text{support}} \leq 50$ are underpowered regardless of adjustment (Section 8.3). The correct reading of Table 8 is therefore the effect size and the sign of Δ , not the threshold-crossing of any adjusted p -value.

Table 9. Percentile bootstrap 95% intervals for the baseline 5-fold means (10,000 resamples). **These are small-sample intervals over five fold-means and are not coverage-calibrated;** read them as a smoothed indication of cross-fold spread, not as exact confidence statements.

Metric	Mean	95% CI
token	0.7811	[0.7633, 0.7988]
sequence	0.0263	[0.0113, 0.0428]
type	0.9838	[0.9753, 0.9896]
command	0.8875	[0.8316, 0.9186]
param_type	0.9931	[0.9895, 0.9952]
numeric	0.5850	[0.5575, 0.6131]

6.10.2. No-Numeric Retraining: Decomposing the Autoregressive Collapse

Roughly half of every G-code line’s positions are coordinate *values* (Section 6.4), each a hard selection from the $\sim 2,400$ -entry numeric vocabulary, and a single mispredicted value desynchronizes the autoregressive decode of the remainder of the line. To test whether the AR collapse of Section 7.3 is *driven* by the numeric tokens we retrain the decoder with every coordinate value collapsed to a single placeholder token (24-entry structural vocabulary), so a numeric error can never desynchronize the decode; the frozen encoder, 5-fold split, and decoder hyperparameters are otherwise unchanged (full setup in Supplementary Materials Section S29).

Table 10 reports the comparison. **Under teacher forcing** the no-numeric decoder reaches structural token accuracy 0.927 ± 0.024 against the headline decoder’s 0.960 ± 0.020 , and structural sequence exact-match 0.068 ± 0.017 against the headline’s 0.213 ± 0.048 — a real but modest cost from collapsing the varied numeric tokens to a single placeholder. **Under autoregressive decoding, the two effects decompose.** Structural per-token accuracy improves by +8.8 pp (0.405 ± 0.143 vs. 0.317 ± 0.116 ; 5/5 folds positive, paired $t = 3.56$, $p = 0.024$ (Wilcoxon $p = 0.06$)), while structural sequence exact-match is essentially unchanged (0.066 ± 0.014 vs. 0.058 ± 0.039 , 2/5 folds positive) — the deployment-relevant window-level recovery does not improve. The mode-collapse mechanism of Section 7.3 therefore decomposes into (a) **numeric-token desynchronization**, eliminated by the ablation, and (b) a dominant **intrinsic autoregressive mode-collapse of the structural token stream itself**, which the ablation does not affect. A matched-methodology control (against the $K = 2,418$ T3.1 cell at the same schedule) shows

Table 8. Baseline-vs-ablation comparison across the 5 folds (audio-RMS/zero_rms at $n = 4$ — one fold unrecoverable). **At $n \leq 5$ all p -values are descriptive, not confirmatory;** the nonparametric Mann–Whitney U (p_{MWU}) is the primary statement and the parametric ANOVA (F, p_F) is corroborating. The effect size (Cohen’s d) and the sign/magnitude of Δ carry the conclusions. Significance ($* p < 0.05$, $** p < 0.01$, $*** p < 0.001$) is marked on p_{MWU} .

Ablation	Metric	Base	Abl	Δ	d	p_F	p_{MWU}	Sig.
noise_aug	token	0.781	0.732	−0.049	+2.57	0.00361	0.00794	**
noise_aug	sequence	0.026	0.006	−0.021	+1.40	0.0577	0.151	
noise_aug	type	0.984	0.977	−0.007	+0.72	0.286	0.222	
noise_aug	command	0.888	0.331	−0.556	+7.45	$2.46e - 06$	0.00794	**
noise_aug	param_type	0.993	0.977	−0.016	+4.68	$7.58e - 05$	0.00794	**
noise_aug	numeric	0.585	0.448	−0.137	+5.01	$4.67e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_accelerometer	token	0.781	0.743	−0.038	+2.01	0.0131	0.0317	*
zero_accelerometer	sequence	0.026	0.010	−0.017	+1.14	0.11	0.151	
zero_accelerometer	type	0.984	0.979	−0.005	+0.47	0.481	0.548	
zero_accelerometer	command	0.888	0.484	−0.403	+4.58	$8.92e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_accelerometer	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.015	+4.71	$7.24e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_accelerometer	numeric	0.585	0.471	−0.114	+4.25	0.00015	0.00794	**
zero_gyroscope	token	0.781	0.741	−0.040	+2.15	0.00937	0.0317	*
zero_gyroscope	sequence	0.026	0.010	−0.017	+1.14	0.109	0.151	
zero_gyroscope	type	0.984	0.979	−0.004	+0.56	0.402	0.31	
zero_gyroscope	command	0.888	0.462	−0.425	+7.26	$3.01e - 06$	0.00794	**
zero_gyroscope	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.015	+4.40	0.000118	0.00794	**
zero_gyroscope	numeric	0.585	0.469	−0.116	+4.35	0.000128	0.00794	**
zero_magnetometer	token	0.781	0.735	−0.046	+2.10	0.0106	0.0317	*
zero_magnetometer	sequence	0.026	0.009	−0.017	+1.14	0.109	0.151	
zero_magnetometer	type	0.984	0.975	−0.009	+0.84	0.221	0.222	
zero_magnetometer	command	0.888	0.465	−0.422	+5.30	$3.12e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_magnetometer	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.015	+4.72	$7.18e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_magnetometer	numeric	0.585	0.466	−0.119	+4.03	0.000215	0.00794	**
zero_environmental	token	0.781	0.743	−0.038	+1.99	0.0137	0.0556	
zero_environmental	sequence	0.026	0.009	−0.017	+1.17	0.101	0.151	
zero_environmental	type	0.984	0.977	−0.007	+0.75	0.271	0.0952	
zero_environmental	command	0.888	0.474	−0.413	+5.49	$2.4e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_environmental	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.015	+4.69	$7.46e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_environmental	numeric	0.585	0.470	−0.115	+4.19	0.000166	0.00794	**
zero_color	token	0.781	0.741	−0.040	+2.13	0.00988	0.0317	*
zero_color	sequence	0.026	0.010	−0.016	+1.08	0.126	0.151	
zero_color	type	0.984	0.977	−0.007	+0.72	0.287	0.0952	
zero_color	command	0.888	0.457	−0.431	+4.48	0.000103	0.00794	**
zero_color	param_type	0.993	0.977	−0.016	+3.88	0.000277	0.00794	**
zero_color	numeric	0.585	0.471	−0.114	+4.18	0.000167	0.00794	**
zero_rms	token	0.781	0.739	−0.042	+2.09	0.017	0.0317	*
zero_rms	sequence	0.026	0.009	−0.017	+1.08	0.15	0.19	
zero_rms	type	0.984	0.978	−0.006	+0.63	0.382	0.111	
zero_rms	command	0.888	0.460	−0.427	+5.26	0.000104	0.0159	*
zero_rms	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.015	+4.67	0.000218	0.0159	*
zero_rms	numeric	0.585	0.465	−0.120	+4.15	0.00045	0.0159	*
zero_electrical	token	0.781	0.741	−0.041	+2.19	0.00849	0.0317	*
zero_electrical	sequence	0.026	0.009	−0.017	+1.19	0.0969	0.151	
zero_electrical	type	0.984	0.976	−0.007	+0.75	0.267	0.151	
zero_electrical	command	0.888	0.449	−0.438	+5.40	$2.73e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_electrical	param_type	0.993	0.978	−0.016	+4.73	$7.05e - 05$	0.00794	**
zero_electrical	numeric	0.585	0.465	−0.120	+4.40	0.000118	0.00794	**

$n = 5$ folds per group (audio-RMS/zero_rms at $n = 4$): Levene and Shapiro–Wilk assumption-check p -values and the Wilcoxon signed-rank statistic are recorded per comparison in `audit/anova_results.json`. With five observations these tests are low-power; conclusions rest on effect size and Δ , not on threshold-crossing p -values.

the numeric-vocabulary collapse contributes no additional lift beyond the training-schedule change T3.1 already absorbs, downgrading the standalone “numeric-desynchronization contributes ~ 9 pp” framing while strengthening the dominant-intrinsic-collapse reading; the attribution caveat and the full two-contributor decomposition are in Supplementary Materials Section S29.

Table 10. No-numeric retraining ablation: structural-skeleton recovery of the headline decoder versus a decoder retrained with every coordinate value collapsed to a single placeholder token. *Structural* restricts the metric to command-code and axis-letter positions, excluding numeric/placeholder positions. 5-fold mean $\pm$ std, full-window targets, under teacher-forced (TF) and autoregressive (AR) evaluation. Under TF the no-numeric decoder is modestly weaker on structure (-3 pp per-token, -15 pp per-window) — the cost of collapsing the lexical variety of the numeric vocabulary. Under AR the two effects decompose: per-token structural accuracy improves $+8.8$ pp (paired across folds, 5/5 folds positive, $p < 0.02$) — the contribution of numeric-token desynchronization to the collapse — but per-window structural exact-match is unchanged, identifying intrinsic structural mode-collapse as the dominant window-level mechanism.

Metric	Headline decoder		No-numeric decoder	
	TF	AR	TF	AR
Structural token accuracy	0.960 ± 0.020	0.317 ± 0.116	0.927 ± 0.024	0.405 ± 0.143
Structural sequence exact-match	0.213 ± 0.048	0.058 ± 0.039	0.068 ± 0.017	0.066 ± 0.014

Vocabulary-cardinality spectrum and matched-methodology control (pointer to Supplementary Section S9).

A matched-methodology K -spectrum control ($K \in \{24, 69, 335, 2,418\}$ under $SS=0/dw=0$) confirms that the earlier $K=335$ “sweet spot” framing was a training-schedule effect, not vocabulary cardinality: under matched methodology $K=2,418$ (T3.1) is the directionally strongest variant on every metric, 5/5 folds positive on AR struct token (0.470 ± 0.034 vs. the headline’s 0.317 ± 0.116 , $+15.2$ pp); the paired AR-token contrast is Holm $p = 0.071$ (not significant at $n = 5$), while the AR-sequence contrast reaches Holm $p = 0.006$. The five-point spectrum, the Friedman/ANOVA omnibus, and the per-pair effect sizes are in Supplementary Section S9.

6.10.3. Target-Mode Ablation (Per-Row vs. Full-Window)

The per-row target formulation (Section 3.3) leaves the decoder without a within-window row-identification signal: every row of a given window shares the same encoder memory, and the decoder must predict a specific row from that shared input. A natural alternative is full-window targeting, in which the supervisory signal is the entire multi-line G-code that fired within the window, generated autoregressively. Row identification then comes from the decoder’s own output context: row r is predicted conditional on rows $1 \dots r - 1$. The corresponding row in Table 7 reports the resulting accuracies.

The target-mode contrast — per-row (one G-code line per window) versus full-window (the full multi-line sequence within each window) — isolates the contribution of autoregressive context to row-level recovery. Holding the architecture, hyperparameters, and training data fixed, the full-window formulation produces a substantial lift on the command head: command accuracy moves from per-row 0.499 to full-window 0.888 , a $+38.9$ pp gain. Because the command head is an independent classifier on the encoder memory and not autoregressive in its output stream, this lift is robust across both teacher-forced and autoregressive evaluation regimes (Section 3.4); it reflects an actual change in what the decoder is able to recover, not a difference in eval condition. Section 7.1.0.1 interprets the lift mechanistically: in per-row mode all rows within a 64-second window share the same encoder memory, so the decoder cannot disambiguate which of ~ 60 candidate rows (median 29) it is asked to emit; in full-window mode the multi-line target gives every row a unique within-window position signal, restoring identifiability for the command head.

On the autoregressive-token heads (token, numeric, sequence), the per-row vs. full-window contrast is more nuanced. In teacher-forced evaluation the full-window formulation reports higher token and numeric accuracy than per-row, but in autoregressive evaluation the difference shrinks substantially because exposure-bias errors compound over the longer full-window sequences. We therefore report the full-window formulation as the deployment-recommended configuration only when categorical recovery is the objective; when end-to-end sequence reproduction is the objective, per-row mode is comparable in autoregressive performance and has the practical advantage of much shorter, parallelizable per-row inference.

6.11. RQ3: Sensor-Modality Ablation

For each of seven sensor modality groups (accelerometer, gyroscope, magnetometer, environmental, color, audio-RMS, electrical) we zero the corresponding sensor channels at the encoder input, then evaluate the decoder. The encoder is not retrained; the zeroing happens only at decoder-inference time, which isolates the marginal contribution of each modality *conditional on the encoder's existing weight allocation*. This is a *lower bound* on the value of each modality: an encoder retrained without a given modality could re-allocate capacity onto the remaining channels and would be the appropriate test of modality-redundancy at the system level; the inference-time zeroing reported here tests only what the existing encoder happens to extract from that modality. *Audio-RMS fold count*. Six of the seven modality groups are evaluated at the full 5-fold protocol ($n = 5$); audio-RMS is evaluated at $n = 4$ because one fold's ablation run was unrecoverable (and was not retrained). The between-modality ANOVA ($F = 0.07$, $p = 0.998$; `audit/sensor_anova_7modality.json`) and the per-modality Welch and Mann-Whitney tests are therefore computed with audio-RMS at $n = 4$ and the other six modalities at $n = 5$; given the uniform ~ 40 – 44 pp collapse across all seven modalities, the non-significant between-modality verdict does not hinge on the single missing audio-RMS fold.

The finding: uniform collapse, not modality differentiation.

At the inference-time-zeroing test every modality is critical to the command head and the magnitude is statistically uniform: zeroing any single modality drops command accuracy from the full-modality baseline of 0.888 ± 0.056 to the 0.449 – 0.484 band (accelerometer 0.484 , environmental 0.474 , magnetometer 0.465 , gyroscope 0.462 , rms 0.460 , color 0.457 , electrical 0.449 ; all ± 0.05 – 0.11 across folds), a uniform -40 to -44 pp collapse. A one-way ANOVA across the seven zeroed-modality groups is *not* significant ($F = 0.07$, $p = 0.998$; `audit/sensor_anova_7modality.json`) — the seven modalities are not separable from one another at the present fold count — while every modality *versus* the full-modality baseline *is* significant under a Welch test ($p < 0.001$ in all seven cases, t from -7.1 to -11.5). **No single modality is shown to be more deletable than another at this test**; the test confirms joint necessity but cannot rank importance. Because failure-to-reject is not positive evidence for equivalence, we also applied the TOST + BF_{01} machinery used in the LOSO study (Supplementary Section S5) to the seven frozen-encoder zeroed-modality means at a comparable equivalence margin of ± 0.020 command accuracy: the seven means span only the 0.449 – 0.484 band ($\Delta \leq 0.035$ across pairs), but at $n = 5$ the most likely TOST verdict on several pairs is *inconclusive* (a ± 0.020 margin is at the resolution limit of a five-block test), consistent with the framing above that the test cannot rank importance; the genuine modality ranking comes from the encoder-retraining LOMO study (Section 6.11.1), not from this inference-time-zeroing test. Token, type, and parameter-type heads are far more robust: token drops ~ 4 pp, type < 1 pp, and parameter-type ~ 1.5 pp across every ablation. Table 11 reports the per-modality numbers (six modalities at $n = 5$, audio-RMS at $n = 4$) and Figure 6 shows the bar chart.

Interpretation.

The encoder's learned modality-gating routes essential command-discrimination signal through every modality at once; when any one is zeroed at inference the representation degenerates to

Table 11. Sensor-modality ablation (mean $\pm$ std; $n = 5$ folds per modality, except audio-RMS at $n = 4$ — one fold’s ablation run was unrecoverable). Each row zeroes the named sensor channels at the encoder input and re-evaluates the decoder; the encoder is *not* retrained, so this is a lower bound on modality value. A one-way ANOVA across the seven zeroed-modality groups on command accuracy is not significant ($F = 0.07$, $p = 0.998$): the seven modalities are statistically indistinguishable from one another. Every modality versus the full-modality baseline is significant (Welch t , $p < 0.001$ in all seven cases), with a uniform ~ 40 – 44 pp command-accuracy collapse. Token, type, and parameter-type heads stay within ~ 4 pp of baseline for every removal.

Modality removed	Token	Type	Command	Param-type	Numeric
<i>baseline (5-fold)</i>	0.781 ± 0.022	0.984 ± 0.009	0.888 ± 0.056	0.993 ± 0.004	0.585 ± 0.033
zero accelerometer	0.743 ± 0.010	0.979 ± 0.010	0.484 ± 0.096	0.978 ± 0.002	0.471 ± 0.008
zero color	0.741 ± 0.010	0.977 ± 0.008	0.457 ± 0.108	0.977 ± 0.004	0.471 ± 0.009
zero electrical	0.741 ± 0.009	0.976 ± 0.009	0.449 ± 0.086	0.978 ± 0.002	0.465 ± 0.009
zero environmental	0.743 ± 0.010	0.977 ± 0.008	0.474 ± 0.077	0.978 ± 0.002	0.470 ± 0.011
zero gyroscope	0.741 ± 0.009	0.979 ± 0.005	0.462 ± 0.049	0.978 ± 0.003	0.469 ± 0.006
zero magnetometer	0.735 ± 0.018	0.975 ± 0.010	0.465 ± 0.084	0.978 ± 0.002	0.466 ± 0.017
zero rms	0.739 ± 0.010	0.978 ± 0.007	0.460 ± 0.088	0.978 ± 0.002	0.465 ± 0.010

The uniform command collapse with a non-significant between-modality ANOVA ($p = 0.998$) is the key result: the inference-time zeroing test confirms all modalities are jointly necessary but cannot rank them. The genuine modality-importance ranking requires an encoder retrained without each modality (Section 8.6).

one informative enough for the coarse (type, param-type) heads but not for the finer command head. The inference-time zeroing test therefore cannot rank modalities; it can only confirm joint necessity. The genuine modality-importance ranking requires an encoder retrained from scratch without each modality, performed in Section 6.11.1, where the retrained encoder fully compensates for any single modality removal (Δ command ≤ 0.013 ; 0/7 Holm-significant), so the frozen-encoder “joint necessity” reading is a gating artifact, not a statement of modality information content. The extended interpretation and the reconciliation with the encoder paper’s SHAP-style modality ranking (gyroscope/color/electrical), which the decoder-side frozen-encoder ablation does not reproduce because the two analyses answer different questions, are in Supplementary Materials Section S26.

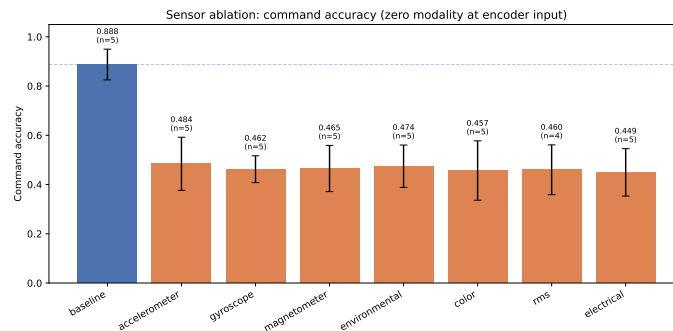


Figure 6. Sensor-modality ablation: each of the seven sensor groups is zeroed at the encoder input and the resulting decoder command accuracy reported (5-fold mean $\pm$ std per modality; audio-RMS at $n = 4$, one fold unrecoverable; Table 11). Removing any single modality drops command accuracy by 40–44 pp; the ~ 4 pp span across modalities shows the inference-time-zeroing test does not differentiate modality importance — the encoder’s learned gating routes command-discrimination signal through all modalities jointly. A genuine modality-importance ranking requires per-modality encoder retraining; that test is performed in Section 6.11.1, where the retrained encoder fully compensates for any single modality removal.

6.11.1. Per-Modality Encoder Retraining (Leave-One-Modality-Out)

The inference-time-zeroing ablation of Section 6.11 cannot rank modalities because zeroing any one disrupts the frozen encoder’s learned gating, producing a statistically uniform 40–44 pp collapse ($F = 0.07$, $p = 0.998$). The deployment-relevant question is whether the encoder, when retrained without a modality, can reallocate capacity onto the remaining channels. We retrain the multi-modal denoising encoder from scratch on the 98-feature base with each modality’s channels removed, train a fresh six-head decoder on the resulting frozen encoder, and score all seven cells against a retrained full-stack baseline on the identical held-out test set (a deterministic coverage-repair ordering and a per-cell channel-identity gate guarantee the split is byte-identical across modality exclusions); the full protocol and paired-comparison-validity detail are in Supplementary Materials Section S25.

The finding.

Retraining the encoder without any single modality produces no measurable change in any decoder head. The full-stack baseline reaches command accuracy 0.904 ± 0.039 and every single-modality removal lands within ± 0.013 of it on the fold-paired effect (electrical largest at -0.013 ± 0.015); the fold-blocked one-way ANOVA across the seven LOMO conditions is non-significant ($F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$), and the Holm-corrected per-modality paired t -test against zero rejects none (0/7 at $\alpha = 0.05$). Token and numeric heads behave the same way (paired effects within ± 0.011 token, ± 0.022 numeric, all non-significant). Table 12 reports the per-modality numbers, Figure 7 shows the per-modality paired Δ command, the per-modality five-fold means and Hedges’ g_z are in Supplementary Materials Section S25, and full per-fold Δ , Holm-corrected p , and effect sizes are in `audit/lomo_modality_attribution.json`.

Table 12. Leave-one-modality-out (LOMO) encoder retraining, full-window, five-fold. Each row: the encoder retrained from scratch with that modality’s channels removed, then a fresh decoder trained on it (headline recipe). *Command* is the five-fold mean $\pm$ s.d. Δ Command is the *fold-paired* effect — the mean over folds of $\text{command}(m, f) - \text{command}(\text{baseline}, f)$ — which removes the large fold-to-fold variance. p_{Holm} is the Holm-corrected one-sample t -test of those per-fold deltas against zero. Contrast with the inference-time zeroing of Table 11, which holds a frozen encoder fixed.

Modality removed	Command	Token	Numeric	Δ Command (paired)	p_{Holm}
<i>Full stack (baseline)</i>	0.904 ± 0.039	0.774 ± 0.024	0.569 ± 0.050	—	—
Accelerometer	0.903 ± 0.037	0.769 ± 0.018	0.559 ± 0.039	-0.001 ± 0.005	1.000
Gyroscope	0.905 ± 0.030	0.772 ± 0.019	0.569 ± 0.041	$+0.000 \pm 0.010$	1.000
Magnetometer	0.896 ± 0.033	0.761 ± 0.018	0.547 ± 0.040	-0.008 ± 0.007	0.407
Color	0.904 ± 0.044	0.773 ± 0.018	0.569 ± 0.038	-0.001 ± 0.013	1.000
Temperature	0.904 ± 0.038	0.775 ± 0.023	0.571 ± 0.049	-0.000 ± 0.015	1.000
Audio-RMS	0.905 ± 0.039	0.779 ± 0.022	0.582 ± 0.043	$+0.000 \pm 0.017$	1.000
Electrical	0.891 ± 0.051	0.776 ± 0.024	0.576 ± 0.050	-0.013 ± 0.015	0.710

Fold-blocked one-way ANOVA across the seven LOMO conditions (on the per-fold deltas): $F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$. Per-modality paired t -test vs. baseline (Holm-corrected): 0/7 significant at $\alpha = 0.05$. Coverage: 40/40 cells.

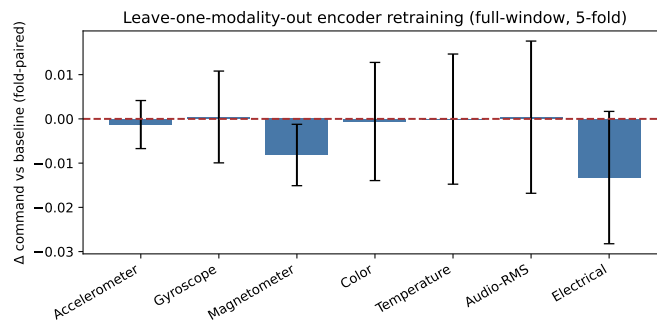


Figure 7. Leave-one-modality-out encoder retraining: per-modality fold-paired Δ command accuracy versus the retrained full-stack baseline (zero line), with five-fold error bars. Every modality is within ± 0.013 of baseline, none significant after Holm correction (fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$). Contrast with Figure 6, where the encoder is frozen and zeroing a single modality collapses command accuracy by -42 pp uniformly: the gap is the encoder’s re-allocation capacity, not the modalities’ information content.

Interpretation.

The -42 pp frozen-encoder collapse of Section 6.11 reduces to ≤ 1.3 pp under encoder retraining (none significant). The frozen-encoder gating routes signal through every channel at once, so zeroing one disrupts the routing without changing signal availability; with retraining, capacity reallocates onto the remaining channels. The deployment-relevant statement upgrades from “the full multi-modal stack is required” (frozen-encoder result) to “no single modality is individually load-bearing” (encoder-retraining result). The orthogonal axis — which physical sensor unit a deployment could ship without — is addressed in Supplementary Section S5.

Orthogonal probes (summary).

The LOMO main effect above (paired Δ command ≤ 0.013 per dropped modality; fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$; 0/7 removals Holm-significant) is corroborated along two orthogonal axes that a body-only reader should not need to open the supplement to see. *LOSO* (per-physical-sensor-unit leave-one-out under encoder retraining): $\Delta \leq 2.6$ pp per board, no removal Holm-significant, fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 1.04$, $p = 0.415$ (0/6 Holm-significant), with y_bed_4 statistically indistinguishable from baseline at $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.975$ (full per-board numbers in Supplementary Section S5). *Nested* 6×6 (sensor, modality) interior: every cell within ± 0.022 pp of baseline, fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 0.694$, $p = 0.896$ (0/36 Holm-significant; Supplementary Section S6). No single-fold interaction-effect pilot (pattern-aware sequence classifier; $K = 451$ 2-digit vocabulary precision; seven-cell window / stride sweep; nested shortcuts $\times$ modality and pattern $\times$ modality probes; Supplementary Section S8) overturns the modality main effect or the headline. The three nulls (LOMO $p = 0.499$, LOSO $p = 0.415$, nested $p = 0.896$) align: the redundancy is dense rather than a marginal-average effect. The joint LOMO+LOSO deployment statement is consolidated in Section 7.2.0.1.

6.12. RQ4: Cross-Class Generalization (Leave-One-Class-Out)

For each of the nine operation classes (adaptive, adaptive150025, face, face150025, pocket, pocket150025, damageadaptive, damageface, damagepocket), we train the decoder without that class in the training partition and evaluate on its held-out test samples. This stress-tests the decoder’s ability to generalize across machining operations rather than memorize per-class shortcuts.

Each holdout removes every file of the held-out class from the fold 1 train/validation partitions, re-stratifies the remaining 8-class training partition at the headline 80/20 split, and tests on the entire population of held-out-class files; the coverage-repair step is deliberately *not* re-run, leaving the open-vocabulary residual the protocol is designed to expose. All hyperparameters are reused verbatim

and each holdout is trained from scratch; the full partition-construction detail is in Supplementary Materials Section S27.

Across all nine LOCO holdouts (one fold per holdout, fold-1 file split): token accuracy mean 0.501 (min 0.29, median 0.53, max 0.61), sequence accuracy mean 0.001 (range [0, 0.005]), command accuracy mean 0.213 (min 0.000, median 0.21, max 0.678), numeric accuracy mean 0.152 (min 0.000, median 0.16, max 0.402). The nine operation classes are the population of operation classes in the corpus, not a sample from a class population, so we report the finite-population descriptive distribution rather than between-class parametric/bootstrap CIs and make no inferential claim about a hypothetical wider class population. The per-holdout numbers themselves are single-fold (file-split fold 1 only) and the open-vocabulary headline command mean 0.213 is therefore a single-fold result — the 9-class spread $\sigma = 0.191$ reflects between-class heterogeneity, not within-class fold-to-fold sampling. Type and parameter-type accuracy across the nine holdouts are markedly more robust (means 0.883 and 0.945 respectively; spreads ± 0.061 and ± 0.036 across classes, same single-fold caveat). Relative to the in-distribution 5-fold baseline (0.781/0.026/0.888/0.585), the LOCO setting incurs a ~ 28 pp drop on token accuracy, a ~ 3 pp drop on sequence accuracy, a ~ 67 pp drop on command accuracy (mean), and a ~ 43 pp drop on numeric accuracy. We report this contrast as a descriptive gap rather than a two-sample test: the five in-distribution folds and the nine LOCO holdouts are not two random samples from a common population (file-stratified CV vs. enumeration over operation classes are different experimental designs), and a Welch/Mann–Whitney test on them tests nothing well-defined. The per-holdout collapse below is the central evidence (5-fold in-distribution command mean 0.888 vs. nine-class LOCO mean 0.213, gap 0.675; the corresponding 5-fold and 9-class per-cell ranges do not overlap on command or numeric).

Per-holdout variance and the damagepocket outlier.

The nine per-holdout command accuracies span [0.000, 0.678] with $\sigma = 0.191$. Eight of the nine holdouts cluster in [0.000, 0.273] ($\sim$ in line with the mode-collapse story below); one holdout, damagepocket, reaches command accuracy 0.678, token 0.548, and numeric 0.402. The structural reason is that the damagepocket test class shares most of its motion vocabulary (predominantly G1 linear cuts with modest G3 finishing arcs) with the pocket and pocket150025 variants retained in training; the model transfers its in-distribution pocket-pattern command discrimination to the held-out damaged-pocket samples with only modest degradation. By contrast, damageadaptive (command 0.000) and damageface (command 0.094) do not benefit similarly from their parent operations because the adaptive and face motion patterns differ more strongly between damaged and non-damaged variants than the pocket variants do. The lesson is that cross-class generalization is not uniformly absent: it succeeds when the held-out class shares motion vocabulary with retained training classes, and collapses otherwise. The median across the nine holdouts (0.21) better reflects the typical cross-class behavior than the mean.

Per-class LOCO command F1.

The collapse spans every command class and the model defaults to the modal G1 — the mode-collapse mechanism (Section 7.3) under an unseen motion vocabulary; the per-class F1 breakdown is in Supplementary Materials Section S27. The heads degrade asymmetrically: type and parameter-type survive LOCO ($-9/-5$ pp), so the encoder preserves gross instruction structure even for a novel class, while command and numeric require the in-distribution operation pattern. The deployment-realistic claim for an instruction-level monitor is therefore bounded by these LOCO numbers, not the 5-fold headline (the open-vocabulary counterpart of the closed-vocabulary regime, Section 8.1). *Scope binding.* The deployment claim of this paper is therefore explicitly scoped to in-distribution post-hoc audit — closed-world over the G-code operation classes observed at training time. Open-world / novel-operation-class deployment is out of scope on the present system and is deferred to future cross-platform replication (Section 8); within the closed-world envelope the

operating point is the in-distribution command-swap point of Section 7.4, and outside it the system is not a usable detector (LOCO command-swap FPR 0.52, sign-flip and feed-edit at or below chance). Figure 8 shows the full per-holdout, per-head breakdown.

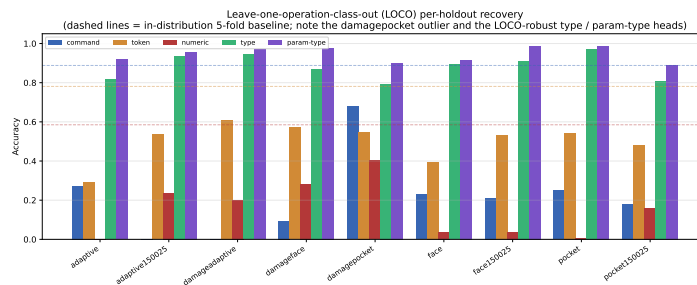


Figure 8. Leave-one-operation-class-out (LOCO) recovery per holdout. Bars are command / token / numeric / type / parameter-type accuracy for each of the nine held-out operation classes; dashed lines are the in-distribution 5-fold baselines. Eight of nine holdouts collapse on command accuracy (≤ 0.28 , range $[0.000, 0.273]$); `damagepocket` (0.68) is the structural outlier where the held-out class shares motion vocabulary with the retained `pocket` variants. Type and parameter-type bars stay near their in-distribution baselines across every holdout, confirming that gross instruction structure generalizes across operation classes while fine command/numeric discrimination does not.

6.13. Noise Augmentation

Gaussian sensor noise ($\sigma = 0.02$) plus feature-dropout and token-masking during training is a clean *negative* result: token (0.732) and numeric (0.448) are preserved but command drops to 0.331 ± 0.076 (a ~ 56 pp shortfall against the 0.888 headline), because the regularization pushes the command head toward the modal class. Not recommended here; full numbers in Supplementary Materials Section S38.

6.14. End-to-End Seq2Seq Baseline: What the Frozen Encoder + Grammar Mask Buy

Motivation.

The headline architecture stacks a frozen MM-DTAE encoder (Section 4.2), a grammar-constrained autoregressive decoder, and a six-head structured output on top of an otherwise standard Transformer decoder. None of these components is individually novel; the question is whether the stack earns its keep against a vanilla seq2seq trained end-to-end on the same data. This subsection answers it.

Baseline.

A from-scratch Transformer encoder-decoder (8.64 M parameters, a same-order-of-magnitude budget to the frozen encoder's 8.6 M: 4-layer encoder + 4-layer decoder, $d_{\text{model}} = 256$, 8 heads) trained directly on (sensor window $\rightarrow$ G-code token sequence) with cross-entropy. No frozen encoder, no grammar mask, no six-head structured output, no scheduled sampling, no auxiliary losses. Same V8 vocabulary, same full-window target formulation, same file-level 5-fold CV, same evaluation metrics. Code: `scripts/evaluation/run_seq2seq_baseline.py` and `src/miracle/model/seq2seq_baseline.py`.

Result.

Table 13 reports the head-to-head, with three findings (extended interpretation in Supplementary Materials Section S30). (1) *Teacher-forced command accuracy is architecture-invariant*: the baseline reaches 0.877 ± 0.031 TF command accuracy, indistinguishable from the headline 0.888 ± 0.056 . (2) *The +76.6 pp command / +77.9 pp parameter-type AR gap is a metric-construction artifact, not autoregressive-decoder superiority*: the baseline reads command identity off the autoregressively generated token stream

(collapsing to 0.122 ± 0.051 , the most-frequent-class prior), whereas the headline command head is a non-autoregressive classifier on the encoder memory (TF/AR-invariant at 0.888); compared like-for-like on the AR token stream the two architectures are within a fold of each other (token 0.154 vs. 0.215; numeric 0.100 vs. 0.104). (3) *TF numeric reverses*: the baseline's TF numeric accuracy (0.754 ± 0.053) exceeds the headline's bucketized digit-decomposition output (0.585 ± 0.033) by +16.9 pp, a future-work item for the numeric head that does not translate to an AR-mode deployment advantage (AR numeric 0.100 vs. 0.104).

Interpretation.

The contrast scopes the paper's architectural contribution narrowly and honestly: the +77 pp AR command/parameter-type gap is the consequence of *routing categorical prediction off the autoregressive token stream onto the encoder memory*, not a claim of autoregressive-decoder superiority. Read as a like-for-like AR comparison, the two architectures' token and numeric streams collapse together. The contribution is therefore the design choice of harvesting the categorical fields with non-autoregressive classifier heads, which is robust to the exposure-bias collapse that limits any AR token reader on this corpus. It explicitly does *not* claim a TF-mode architectural advantage on the categorical heads, and concedes a TF-numeric disadvantage attributable to the bucketization design. This scoping matches the post-hoc audit framing of Section 7.2.0.1: the categorical heads carry the deployment signal, and they do so by construction independent of autoregression.

7. Discussion

7.1. What is recoverable, and the class-prior boundary

What is recoverable, and why.

Recoverability factorizes into three structural tiers (numbers in Section 6.2 and Table 6). *Categorical* structure (command and axis identity) is the strongest tier: the sensor pathway determines which class of motion is occurring and which axes are involved independently of file position; the metadata ablation (Section 6.10.1) confirms positional features add nothing.

Motion sign is recovered with a clean axis asymmetry: Y near-perfect, X and Z lower. On this geometry the result suggests the $\pm X$ and $\pm Z$ sensor signatures are less separable than $\pm Y$, plausibly because of sensor-board layout relative to the workpiece origin or X-symmetric workpiece geometry; a workpiece-rotation experiment would isolate the cause.

Numeric precision is the limiting tier, and the limit is information-theoretic. Loss concentrates at the middle (fine-value) digit positions (Section 6.4), and a 64-second window observes only relative motion, not absolute machine coordinates: recovering the latter requires positional context (deliberately withheld) or longer-range autoregressive context the per-row formulation does not provide. The failure-mode analysis is in Section 6.9. The deeper question — whether the categorical tier is genuine sensor recovery or the encoder's class prior — is the subject of the next subsection.

Is categorical recovery sensor-driven or operation-class structure?

The frozen encoder was trained for nine-class operation classification on the *same* file-level fold partitions used here (Supplementary Materials Section S21); its memory is strongly low-rank and linearly separates the operation classes (Section 4.5). A direct concern (and one a careful reader should press) is therefore whether the headline command accuracy is genuine per-instruction sensor recovery or operation-class structure re-expressed at the command level. We quantify this with a class-prior control (audit/confound_class_prior.json; scripts/analysis/confound_class_prior.py) that,

Table 13. Head-to-head comparison of the from-scratch seq2seq baseline (8.64 M params, vanilla Transformer encoder–decoder, end-to-end trained, no frozen encoder, no grammar mask, no structured heads) against the main-paper headline configuration (frozen MM-DTAE encoder + grammar-masked decoder + 6-head structured output, ≈ 30 M decoder params). Mean $\pm$ s.d. across 5 file-level CV folds. Δ = Main – Baseline, in accuracy points. Bold entries mark heads where one configuration wins by more than 5 pp. The teacher-forced (sweep-time) command accuracy is architecture-invariant (0.877 vs. 0.888, well within fold variance). The large +77 pp command / +78 pp parameter-type AR gap is *not* autoregressive-decoder superiority: the main system’s categorical heads are non-autoregressive classifiers on the frozen encoder memory (TF/AR-invariant by construction), whereas the baseline reads command identity off its autoregressively generated token stream, which suffers the exposure-bias collapse of Section 7.3. The gap is the value of routing categorical prediction off the token stream; read like-for-like (both on the AR token stream), AR token (0.154 vs. 0.215) and AR numeric (0.100 vs. 0.104) are within a fold of each other. The TF-numeric column carries a surprise in the opposite direction: the from-scratch baseline reports a +16.9 pp higher TF digit accuracy, consistent with the main paper’s discretization design (bucketization for downstream grammar-mask compatibility) sacrificing some TF-time digit precision.

Metric	Baseline TF	Main TF	Δ TF	Baseline AR	Main AR	Δ AR
Command	0.877 $\pm$ 0.031	0.888 $\pm$ 0.056	+0.011	0.122 $\pm$ 0.051	0.888 $\pm$ 0.056	+0.766
Token	0.865 $\pm$ 0.027	0.781 $\pm$ 0.022	−0.084	0.154 $\pm$ 0.071	0.215 $\pm$ 0.069	+0.061
Numeric	0.754 $\pm$ 0.053	0.585 $\pm$ 0.033	−0.169	0.100 $\pm$ 0.063	0.104 $\pm$ 0.032	+0.004
Param-type	0.979 $\pm$ 0.012	0.993 $\pm$ 0.004	+0.014	0.214 $\pm$ 0.082	0.993 $\pm$ 0.004	+0.779
Sequence	0.175 $\pm$ 0.026	–	–	0.029 $\pm$ 0.040	0.026 $\pm$ 0.019	−0.003

The from-scratch baseline is the most direct seq2seq null model: it shares the full-window target formulation, vocabulary, optimizer family, and 5-fold split with the main system but removes (a) the frozen MM-DTAE encoder, (b) the grammar mask, and (c) the auxiliary structured heads. The TF-command read demonstrates that an 8.64 M vanilla Transformer can already match the categorical-head ceiling under teacher forcing — the categorical signal in the sensor stream is recoverable by either architecture. The AR-command read reflects where command identity is harvested, not which decoder is stronger: the baseline reads it from the collapsed autoregressive token stream (12%, the most-frequent-class prior), while the main system reads it from a non-autoregressive classifier on the encoder memory (89%, TF/AR-invariant). The lift is the value of bypassing autoregression for the categorical fields, not an autoregressive-decoder advantage. The TF-numeric reversal is consistent with the main paper’s vocabulary design: bucketization of numeric ranges to a fixed precision is what makes the grammar mask tractable in the legacy-token head (Section 3.2), but it forfeits the few percentage points of TF digit accuracy that the baseline retains by predicting raw digit tokens without bucketization constraints. The AR-numeric column collapses both architectures to within a fold of each other, indicating that numeric AR is mode-collapse-limited (Section 7.3) regardless of the architectural envelope. Sequence TF is reported for the baseline only; the main paper treats TF sequence exact-match as ill-defined because under full teacher forcing the metric reduces to per-token TF accuracy collapsed to all-or-nothing (Section 6.2).

at every COMMAND-token position of the full-window predictions, compares the decoder against (i) a *class-prior* predictor that emits the modal command of the window's operation class (modal computed on the fold's training split) and (ii) a within-window modal predictor.

The result is a partial vindication with an explicit caveat that we now state up front. The decoder's command accuracy at command positions is 0.795 ± 0.121 (5-fold), versus a class-prior baseline of 0.572 ± 0.004 and a within-window-modal baseline of 0.587 ± 0.003 . **The +22 pp increment is a 4-of-5-fold effect, not a uniform one:** on fold 1 the decoder (0.552) is in fact *at or below* its own class prior (0.568, a -0.016 delta — the covariate-shift outlier of Section 8.3.0.1), while folds 2–5 sit $+0.27$ to $+0.30$ above the prior (0.85–0.86 decoder vs. ~ 0.57 prior). The mean increment of $+0.222$ is therefore driven entirely by the four non-outlier folds and would not survive removal of more than one fold. Note that in file-level cross-validation, a per-file modal predictor that uses only training data necessarily reduces to the operation-class modal (each test file is unseen, so file-specific modal cannot be estimated from train data alone), so the operation-class modal is the strictest legitimate sensor-independent null. The 0.795 here is command accuracy evaluated only at COMMAND-token positions of the full-window predictions, a different position subset and aggregation than the 0.8875 head accuracy in Table 2; the two are consistent measurements of the same predictions, not a discrepancy, exactly as for the per-file mean in Section 8.4. The paired-by-fold contrast gives a mean increment of $+0.222$ (per-fold deltas $\{-0.02, +0.28, +0.27, +0.30, +0.28\}$, 4/5 positive); at $n = 5$ we report this as an effect size with its per-fold scatter rather than a p -value, because no five-point test can confirm an increment whose sign flips on one fold. A percentile bootstrap over the five per-fold deltas gives a 95% CI of approximately $[+0.10, +0.29]$; the fragility is a leave-one-fold effect, not a bootstrap-edge one — jackknife leave-one-out means are $+0.20$ to $+0.21$ when any of folds 2–5 is dropped and $+0.28$ when the fold-1 outlier is dropped (folds 2–5 mean $+0.282$). The magnitude should be read as an *upper* bound on the sensor-driven within-class signal (see the class-conditional-modal bound below).

Two things follow. First, a majority of the headline command signal (roughly 0.57 of the 0.79) is attributable to operation-class structure the encoder already encodes; the absolute command numbers must be read in that light, and this is the representational counterpart of the leave-one-class-out collapse (Section 6.12). Second, the decoder adds an increment of within-class command discrimination above the class prior — mean $+0.222$ across folds, but a 4/5-fold effect (zero on the fold-1 outlier) — on the $97.4\% \pm 1.4\%$ of windows that contain more than one distinct command. Its accuracy on those command-heterogeneous windows, 0.794 ± 0.122 , is indistinguishable from its pooled accuracy, so it is not merely echoing a per-window stereotype. The honest statement is therefore neither “the decoder recovers commands from sensors” nor “the decoder only re-reads the class label”: it adds a bounded, fold-dependent increment of per-instruction command information on top of a large operation-class prior.

*This increment is an UPPER bound (closed-vocabulary regime, frozen-encoder representation reuse), but it is robust to conditioning the null on operation class. A class-conditional modal predictor — the most-frequent command within each operation class — scored on the same all-command-position basis as the decoder reaches only 0.576 ± 0.003 (5-fold; audit/class_conditional_modal_5fold.json), essentially identical to the 0.572 unconditional operation-class modal: conditioning the null on operation class does not raise it, so the +22 pp increment is *not* shrunk by this stricter null. (A first-command-position-only class-conditional modal reaches ~ 0.81 , audit/class_conditional_modal.json, but that is an easier estimand scored on a single position per window, not a like-for-like null for the decoder's all-position accuracy.) The +22 pp figure remains an upper bound on per-instruction sensor-driven recovery because of the closed-vocabulary regime and frozen-encoder reuse, not because a class-conditional null beats it.*

A per-file-modal control (raised in review) would tighten this bound further given the 97.6%/99.0% verbatim line overlap (Section 8.1) but is not computed for this release; we note that under file-level CV the operation-class modal is in fact the strictest *legitimate* train-only null (a per-file-modal predictor exceeding 0.572 requires test-file labels), so the +22 pp lift is already measured against that

null and the per-file-modal control is best read as an oracle-style upper bound — full argument in Supplementary Materials Section S21.

7.2. Sensor-stack redundancy and deployment recommendations

Sensor-modality importance and deployment implications.

The deployment-relevant takeaway is that a cost-reduced post-hoc audit installation is viable on this platform: drop `y_bed_4`, retain `spindle2`. The same redundancy applies whether the system is deployed as an offline forensic audit complement or a periodic process-verification routine; it is not a recommendation for a real-time SOC monitor (Section 7.4). The supporting reasoning runs in three steps (full version in Supplementary Materials Section S32): the frozen-encoder inference-time ablation establishes *joint necessity* (40–44 pp uniform collapse, between-modality ANOVA $p=0.998$); the encoder-retraining LOMO complement (Section 6.11.1) shows no single modality is individually load-bearing (paired Δ command ≤ 0.013 ; $F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$), so the collapse is a gating artifact; and the companion LOSO study (Supplementary Section S5) shows any single physical sensor board costs ≤ 2.6 pp (largest `spindle2` -0.026 ; `y_bed_4` ≈ 0 at $p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.975$), with the nested 6×6 interior (Supplementary Section S6) flat at ± 0.022 pp ($F = 0.694$, $p = 0.896$). The redundancy is dense, so any single sensing modality can be dropped at ≤ 1.3 pp expected cost and any single board at ≤ 2.6 pp.

Comparison with side-channel recovery in additive manufacturing.

Additive-manufacturing side-channels [16–18,20,21] reconstruct full print geometry; we match their categorical fidelity but not their geometric fidelity. The gap is expected: the AM literature samples raw acoustics at kHz–MHz, whereas the present 4-Hz stack is deliberately low-rate (Section 2.3, Section 8.2). The comparison bounds what the low-rate stack forgoes, not a deficiency of the method.

When to use this decoder vs. alternative approaches.

The decoder is best suited to three deployment patterns, all offline (full descriptions in Supplementary Materials Section S32): (1) *post-hoc audit (primary)* — command/axis-letter disagreements against the controller log flag specific rows for offline analyst review on contested runs, the posture for which the operating point of Section 7.4 was characterized; (2) *offline process verification (secondary)* — batched per-row predictions reconciled against the commanded program as an end-of-shift step, with the measured- ρ $K = 10$ point (FPR ~ 0.10 , TPR ~ 0.97) as a human-in-the-loop triage aid only; and (3) *anomaly localization (tertiary)* — command-level deviations localize session-level anomaly flags [6,15] to specific G-code lines. The decoder is explicitly not an autonomous real-time alerting tool. Numeric-value precision is too low for coordinate reconstruction throughout; command/axis/sign-level analysis is the reliable signal within the trained toolpath envelope.

Positioning: technology readiness and target verticals.

The work characterised here is at TRL 4 (component validation in a laboratory environment on a single desktop CNC platform: a frozen-encoder + Transformer-decoder stack under file-level cross-validation); cross-platform replication on a production vertical machining centre is the prerequisite for advancing to the TRL 5–6 cross-platform target and is explicitly future work (Section 8.6). The target adoption pipeline is regulated discrete-part manufacturing with auditable part provenance — FDA 21 CFR Part 820 (medical), AS9100D §8.5.2 (aerospace), and IATF 16949 §8.5.2.1 (automotive) — where a controller-independent record of executed instructions complements the existing controller log and the file-hash / attestation lines of defense. The long-run modernization

path for the G-code interface itself is ISO 14649 (STEP-NC) [66], which makes program-level intent machine-checkable; the present sensor decoder is a back-compatible monitor for the installed G-code base during that transition.

Deployment-time target mode: prefer per-row.

In autoregressive deployment the per-row target mode (each window predicts the single G-code line that fired within it) is preferable to the full-window mode used for training-time analysis. Per-row predictions are short (5–15 tokens), independent across rows, and consequently robust to the autoregressive mode-collapse that affects full-window long-sequence generation (Section 7.3). Categorical-head accuracy — the primary signal for the three deployment patterns above — is unaffected by target mode because the categorical heads are independent classifiers on the encoder memory rather than autoregressive token predictors. The full-window mode remains the natural training-time configuration for studying within-window row-disambiguation, but it should not be used at deployment time when the goal is reliable per-instruction recovery.

Conversely, the decoder is *not* a stand-alone replacement for the controller log (no exact-line reproduction) and is not yet suitable for sub-millimeter toolpath verification (numeric precision is insufficient). The combination of the present decoder with the encoder paper’s operation classifier provides a layered verification stack: the encoder flags session-level operation-class anomalies, and the decoder localizes them to specific G-code lines.

Differentiation from file-level program audit and controller attestation.

The orthogonal-defenses argument — why the sensor decoder runs in parallel with file-hash signing [2,54,67] and TCB controller attestation [53] rather than in place of them, and which residual attack subset (runtime substitution, selective skip/duplicate, wrong-workpiece-or-fixturing) the sensor line uniquely addresses — is stated once as the canonical threat model in Section 3.5 (“Adversary model: orthogonal defenses”); it is not re-derived here.

Configuration choices studied (not a deployment endorsement).

A per-choice table summarizing the configuration options this study evaluated and the rationale for each — training schedule (SS=0.5/dw=1.0 headline is the deployment-recommended cell; the T3.1 control is characterized on the AR-structural axis only), numeric vocabulary ($K=2,418$ retained), target mode (per-row), positional metadata, grammar layer (FSM enabled), calibration (per-fold temperature scaling), $K=10$ aggregation (in-distribution only), sensor stack (retain all seven), inference platform, and detectable attack classes — is in Supplementary Materials Section S28. The categorical-recovery rows (target mode, grammar layer, calibration, sensor stack) are robust study findings; the aggregation and attack-class rows are bounded by the in-distribution closed-vocabulary envelope and must be read with the measured- ρ / prior-driven / LOCO qualifiers in Section 7.4.

7.3. Autoregressive Mode Collapse on Full-Window Targets

The autoregressive decoder converges to a corpus-modal facing-pattern toolpath: across the 549-sample 5-fold test split it produces 407 distinct strings (vs. 459 for ground truth) and the modal predicted string appears in 9.5% of windows vs. 2.9% for the modal ground-truth, a $3.3\times$ over-representation (audit/ar_output_diversity.json). The collapse is therefore *partial*: the decoder does not produce a single canonical output, but it over-concentrates on the modal facing-pattern at roughly three times the natural rate. This mode collapse is the mechanism behind the autoregressive-token-accuracy drop reported in Section 6.2; the categorical heads are unaffected for the reason stated in Section 3.4. The target-length correlation (Pearson $r \approx -0.15$) is weak and we treat it only as corroborating, not load-bearing. Section 7.2.0.3 recommends per-row mode at deployment time on this basis.

A worked three-sample illustration of the modal-trajectory collapse and the pairwise prediction-similarity heatmap (Supplementary Figure S3) are in Supplementary Section S4.

7.4. Threat Model Detectability (Results and Discussion)

The trust boundary and the five attack classes are formalized in Section 3.5; this section provides the per-attack-class detectability characterization, the operating-point analysis, and the sensor-side adversary discussion. The measured operating-point results (Table 14, Supplementary Figures S13/S14) are reported here rather than in Section 6 because they only make sense against the trust boundary and attack-class taxonomy of Section 3.5 and the per-field recoverability factorization of Section 6.2; the subsection title flags that the section mixes results and interpretation by design. We follow the manufacturing-cybersecurity literature [1,3,4,6,53,54] throughout.

Scope boundaries (sensor-side, upstream, and out-of-distribution adversaries).

Three adversary classes fall outside the present detector’s scope and are enumerated with their operational mitigations in Supplementary Materials Section S33. (i) A *sensor-side* adversary (wire-tap, EMI injection, telemetry packet-replay, calibration spoofing) can defeat the monitor by attacking the sensor path before the decoder; none is benchmarked here, and a deployment that does not enforce the listed mitigations should not invoke the “physics-of-record” framing. (ii) An *upstream CAM/post-processor* adversary whose substituted toolpath stays in-vocabulary is invisible to the decoder, which agrees with the already-malicious controller stream: the present system is a controller-side-substitution and execution-integrity monitor, not an upstream-design-integrity monitor. (iii) *Out-of-distribution* attacks (novel command tokens, novel operation classes) have no calibrated false-alarm rate and collapse to the LOCO operating-point reality (command-swap FPR 0.52); the in-distribution envelope is closed-world over the V8 vocabulary and the nine operation classes of Section 5.1.

Detection capability by attack class.

Based on the per-field recoverability characterization above (full per-class detail in Supplementary Materials Section S33): *command-identity* ($G0 \rightarrow G1$) and *axis-identity* ($X \rightarrow Y$) substitutions are *detectable* (command accuracy 0.8875 ± 0.0558 , parameter-type 0.9931 ± 0.0036); *motion-sign* substitution is *partially detectable* with only Z-sign carrying non-trivial sensor signal (Y/X sign “detection” is prior mismatch, $H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$, $H_X^{\text{sign}} = 0.38$ vs. $H_Z^{\text{sign}} = 1.04$ bits); *numeric-value* tampering is *not detectable at fine precision* by an information-theoretic bound (thousandths source entropy ≈ 3.3 bits, slot-4 accuracy 0.42); *feed-rate / spindle-speed* tampering is *not evaluable* on the present corpus; *replay* is detectable indirectly (argued, not benchmarked); and *skip/duplicate* at per-row granularity is not directly addressed.

Illustrative tamper operating points (prior-dominated; *not* a validated detector)

The operating points in this subsection are illustrative, not a validated detector, and the reader should treat them as such. No physical tamper was performed: the “tamper” is a synthetic relabelling of the honest predictions, and the reported false-alarm rate is mechanically the recoverability complement (one minus per-field recoverability) on the same population, not an independent honest-run-pair measurement (Table 14 footnote). A genuine independent false-alarm estimate is computable in principle from the multi-file-per-class corpus — the decoder’s prediction on one honest run scored against the controller log of a *different* honest run of the same operation class — but it requires per-file decoder inference not persisted in the released artifacts and is left to the artifact roadmap; the recoverability-complement rate is the disclosed proxy here. The detection signal is also *prior-dominated*: the sensor-conditioned tamper-detection lift over a sensor-independent corpus-modal (modal-substitution) predictor is modest (~ 8 pp TPR; “Measured autocorrelation ...” paragraph

below). We report the numbers because they make the per-field recoverability characterization concrete in attack terms, and because the abstract states this posture explicitly — not because they constitute a deployable detector.

First-pass tamper-injection operating points (illustrative).

We ran a synthetic tamper-injection audit on the 5-fold full-window predictions under autoregressive deployment-true decoding with the FSM grammar layer enabled (Section 4.3.2): for each held-out sample we form the honest pair $(g_{\text{true}}, g_{\text{pred}})$ and mutate g_{true} by command swap, motion-sign flip on the first signed axis, or feed-rate $\pm 10\times$ edit, flagging a tamper when the relevant token-class in g_{pred} differs (thresholds: exact match for command/sign, $> 50\%$ relative deviation for F; $n = 483$ command-swap, 549 sign-flip, 111 feed-edit pooled). Table 14 reports the per-attack-class operating points (baseline / with-metadata): command-swap FPR 0.299/0.222 at TPR 0.921/0.948; sign-flip FPR 0.350/0.244 at TPR 0.703/0.798; feed-rate FPR 0.0055/0.0146 at TPR 0.216/0.532 — summarizing the ROC-AUC and threshold-matched point per attack class under both the in-distribution closed-vocabulary and the open-vocabulary LOCO regimes. The pattern is consistent across both regimes: command-swap is moderately discriminable; sign-flip and feed-rate detectors collapse to near-chance under AR (sign-flip because 99%-positive Y dominates the pooled accuracy by prior; feed-rate because the 4-Hz stack cannot resolve feed-rate transients) and are non-detectable under LOCO. The in-distribution command-swap AUC 0.80–0.86 is the upper-tail figure; the LOCO command-swap FPR 0.52 is the operating-point reality.

Table 14. Tamper-detection discrimination summary and threshold-matched operating point by attack class, regime, and configuration (“Baseline” = no positional metadata; “Metadata” = window-index/source-file exposed; AR deployment-true decoding with FSM grammar). Command-swap rows report a true swept-threshold ROC-AUC with Hanley–McNeil 95% CI [68] ($n_{\text{cmd}} = 483$); sign-flip and feed-rate rows report the single-threshold balanced-accuracy estimator $BA = \frac{1}{2}(TPR + (1 - FPR))$ (AUC undefined for exact-match/threshold-deviation detectors; $BA < 0.5$ is anti-discriminative). FPR is the decoder-vs-controller-log disagreement rate on the unmutated honest pair — mechanically (1 minus per-field recoverability), the recoverability complement re-labelled as an alert rate, not an independent honest-run-pair measurement (smallest empirically-resolved $FPR \approx 1/483 \approx 2.1 \times 10^{-3}$). Sources: `audit/threat_model_tamper_AR_5fold_FSM.json`, `threat_model_tamper_loco.json`.

Attack class	Config.	AUC or BA [95% CI]	TPR	FPR
<i>In-distribution closed-vocabulary regime (5-fold pooled)</i>				
Command-swap (G0→G1) [AUC]	Baseline	0.80 [0.77, 0.83]	0.921	0.299
Command-swap [AUC]	Metadata	0.86 [0.84, 0.88]	0.948	0.222
Sign-flip (X+ → X−) [BA]	Baseline	0.68	0.703	0.350
Sign-flip [BA]	Metadata	0.78	0.798	0.244
Feed-rate $\pm 10\times$ [BA]	Baseline	0.61	0.216	0.0055
Feed-rate $\pm 10\times$ [BA]	Metadata	0.76	0.532	0.0146
<i>Open-vocabulary leave-one-class-out (LOCO) regime; $BA = \frac{1}{2}(TPR + (1 - FPR))$</i>				
Command-swap [BA]	Baseline	0.66	0.847	0.519
Sign-flip [BA]	Baseline	0.20 (anti-disc.)	0.138	0.748
Feed-rate $\pm 10\times$ [BA]	Baseline	0.50 (degenerate, $n = 45$)	0.000	0.000

The pooled sign-flip TPR/FPR mixes prior-driven detection on Y (where the 99%-positive prior alone explains essentially all of the head’s accuracy: $H_Y^{\text{sign}} = 0.08$ bits) with sensor-driven detection on X and Z; the per-axis decomposition above and Section 6.4 should be read alongside the pooled operating points. Adding positional metadata strictly improves tamper detection on every attack class: command-swap TPR moves from 0.92 to 0.95, sign-flip from 0.70 to 0.80, and feed-rate from 0.22 to 0.53 (a $\sim 2.5\times$ improvement). Across the swept detection threshold, command-swap reaches a true ROC-AUC of 0.80/0.86 (baseline/with-shortcuts), while the sign-flip and feed-rate

single-threshold detectors give balanced-accuracy figures in the 0.61–0.78 range whose pessimistic story is the alert-budget cost (Sign-flip FPR 0.24–0.35; feed-rate TPR 0.22–0.53). Autoregressive mode collapse strips per-axis-sign and per-feed-rate information. The ROC-space operating points are shown in Supplementary Figure S14. This is the security counterpart to the mode-collapse-mitigation finding in Section 6.10.1: position metadata gives the autoregressive decoder a per-window anchor that breaks the corpus-modal-output trajectory, producing predictions that are window-specific and therefore informative enough to discriminate tampered from honest controller logs. For security-oriented use the with-metadata configuration is preferable — with the caveat (Section 7.4, positional-metadata row) that window-index/source-file metadata is controller/pipeline-derived while the controller is the untrusted element, so its exposure to the monitor is a residual trust-boundary tension, not an unqualified recommendation; for use cases where positional metadata is unavailable or where a clean “sensors-only” baseline is needed, the no-metadata configuration is the conservative choice.

False-alarm cost.

At the measured median row duration of 0.25 s, one CNC on an 8-hr shift commands $\sim 1.15 \times 10^5$ row decisions, so the with-metadata in-distribution FPR 0.222 yields $\sim 2.5 \times 10^4$ alerts/shift/machine (open-vocabulary LOCO FPR 0.519: $\sim 6 \times 10^4$) — two to three orders of magnitude above the SOC tier-1 alert-budget guidance of $\leq 10^2$ per analyst per shift implicit in NIST SP 800-61 Rev. 2 [69]. A row-level monitor is therefore not viable as a standalone SOC interface without an aggregation or triage stage (the deployment recommendation below accordingly anchors on the lowest-FPR post-hoc audit operating point, not this 0.222 alert rate); the candidate mitigations (sliding- K aggregation, fixed-low-FPR operating-point selection, temperature-scaled calibration) and the extended false-alarm-cost, aggregation, measured-autocorrelation/prior-control, and adaptive-adversary discussion are in Supplementary Materials Section S31, none of which closes the gap (the three deployment-relevant security numbers are enumerated below).

Operating-point recommendation.

Combining the alert-budget analysis above with the per-class detectability map, the recommended deployment posture for the present system is **forensic-support post-hoc audit, explicitly not real-time SOC monitoring**: at the row level the false-alarm budget for any standalone SOC-tier-1 deployment is exceeded by two to three orders of magnitude, and no aggregation rule we evaluated closes that gap (the three deployment-relevant security numbers — measured autocorrelation, prior-dominance, and open-vocabulary collapse — are enumerated below). The system is a controller-independent record of executed instructions intended for offline review of contested runs and end-of-shift reconciliation, complementing (not replacing) file-hash signing on the G-code program and TCB attestation on the controller (Section 3.5). We therefore recommend two concrete operating points and explicitly do *not* recommend a standalone row-level real-time deployment. **(1) Post-hoc forensic / audit**: operate the with-metadata command-swap detector at the lowest empirically-resolved FPR, approximately $\text{FPR} \approx 2 \times 10^{-3}$ on the $n_{\text{cmd}} = 483$ ROC. (This is not the previously stated 10^{-3} target, which extrapolates below the empirical resolution and would require a confirmatory larger held-out honest population; TPR is ~ 0.20 – 0.30 at that point on Supplementary Figure S14, in-distribution.) Accept the low row-level TPR and rely on the post-hoc audit context (the operator is reviewing a contested run, not adjudicating a live stream) to surface command-class disagreements. **(2) Human-in-the-loop confirmation at $K = 10$ majority**: adopt the measured- ρ $K = 10$ majority point (with-metadata $\text{FPR} \sim 0.10$, $\text{TPR} \sim 0.97$ in-distribution) only as a triage aid to a human reviewer, not as an autonomous alert. Both points hold only within the in-distribution closed-vocabulary envelope; under the open-vocabulary LOCO regime the system is not a usable detector and the deployment recommendation reduces to forensic post-hoc inspection of categorical disagreements alone. This recommendation is consistent with the TRL 4 positioning of Section 7.1 and is restated for the deployment-table reader: the system is a post-hoc

audit and offline process-verification tool complementing file-hash signing and controller attestation, not a real-time SOC monitor.

The deployment-relevant security numbers, established in full in Supplementary Materials Section S31, are three: (1) at the empirically measured honest-trace autocorrelation $\rho = 0.42 \pm 0.22$ the $K = 10$ majority command-swap point is with-metadata FPR 0.098 at TPR 0.97 (baseline FPR 0.184 at TPR 0.94), *not* the optimistic ~ 0.04 that the false row-independence assumption gives; (2) the alert is largely prior-driven: the sensor-conditioned decoder adds only ~ 8 pp of TPR over a sensor-independent corpus-modal (modal-substitution) predictor; and the stricter sensor-independent *command-accuracy* null does not tighten this either, since on a matched all-command-position basis the class-conditional modal ($0.576 \approx 0.572$ prior; Section 7.1.0.2) does not exceed the corpus modal, so the ~ 8 pp TPR lift is not absorbed by it; and (3) under the open-vocabulary LOCO regime the command-swap detector collapses to FPR 0.52 at TPR 0.85 with the sign/feed detectors below chance, which is the security-relevant operating point with the in-distribution K -aggregated figures as an optimistic in-envelope ceiling.

The feed-rate detector's low FPR (0.005–0.015) is an *in-distribution* artifact and does not translate to a usable detector: its TPR is only 0.22–0.53 in-distribution and 0.00 under the open-vocabulary LOCO regime — and the feed rate is also the canonical adaptive-adversary bypass field. Closing this would require recovering the feed-rate field, which the present 4-Hz sensor stack and corpus do not support; it is not a current capability.

Adaptive adversary (a structural bypass, not a caveat).

The detector's blind spots are not incidental; they define a complete bypass for any adversary who knows the scheme. The recoverable fields are command identity, axis presence, and motion sign; the *un*-recoverable fields are numeric coordinate value and feed rate (Section 6.3). An adversary who keeps the command/axis/sign envelope fixed and corrupts only coordinates or feed rate is therefore *invisible by construction*, and no K -row aggregation helps because the per-row signal on those fields is already at chance. This is exactly the high-value attack class the Introduction motivates (wrong depth of cut, wrong feed, a scrapped part or damaged tooling), so the residual security value against a non-naive adversary is small: the monitor meaningfully constrains only command/axis/sign substitutions that also stay within the trained toolpath envelope. We state this as a structural limitation, not a tunable parameter (extended discussion in Supplementary Materials Section S31).

Limitations of the verification.

The decoder cannot detect attacks whose physical effect is indistinguishable from a benign program at the 4-Hz sample rate; sub-second motion details (rapid clearance moves, small finishing passes) may be temporally aliased. Mitigations (higher sample rate, additional sensor modalities, encoder retraining with row-level supervision) are open directions (Section 8); none closes the adaptive-adversary bypass above, which structurally requires recovering the numeric/feed fields the present sensor stack does not carry. A separate float-epsilon target-encoding artifact in the numeric-digit pipeline (characterized in the companion limit paper [33] and closed by a patch on the development branch) could in principle let an adversary aware of the historical encoding craft "corrected" G-code to trigger false alarms on a monitor trained on buggy targets; the patch closes this narrow detection-mismatch path for future deployments.

Audit leverage by toolpath entropy.

The per-attack-class detectability above carries a defense-in-depth corollary along an operation-class entropy axis — sensor-side audit is most effective on low-entropy operation classes (facing overruns, drilling cycles) and information-theoretically blind on high-entropy adaptive optimizer-generated toolpaths, complementing rather than replacing cryptographic file-hash signing — which the companion limit paper [33] develops in full.

8. Limitations and Future Work

8.1. Dataset Limitations

Continuous-parameter coverage.

The most consequential dataset limitation is the near-absence of variation in feed rate (F), spindle speed (S), and arc parameters (I/J). The data-coverage table (Table 5) reports each field's positive support: F appears in < 1% of per-row samples; S is essentially absent from both modes; I and J never appear (arcs use R notation only). The accuracy numbers for these fields in Table 6 are therefore artifacts of their near-zero baseline support, not evidence of sensor-driven recovery. Addressing these gaps would require a designed factorial data-collection campaign that systematically varies feed rate, spindle speed, depth of cut, and material at a higher sampling rate (Section 8.6).

Material variety and single desktop-platform scope.

All recorded runs use a single workpiece material on a single Bantam Tools desktop mill (cast-aluminum frame, stepper drive, no flood coolant, dry cutting on machinable wax); material-class generalization cannot be tested on the present corpus and would require a multi-material corpus (e.g., aluminum, steel, Delrin). *Cross-platform generalization is the larger open question.* A production VMC (Haas/DMG/Okuma class: cast-iron base, servo drives, flood coolant, ferrous/aluminum workpieces) differs in vibration amplitude (1–2 orders of magnitude), spectral content, acoustic emission, and motor-current signature (closed-loop servo torque vs. open-loop stepper magnitude; Section 5.1, “Platform characterization”). No result in this paper has been replicated on a production-class VMC; until cross-platform replication is performed (Section 8.6, item (d)), every recoverability claim, deployment recommendation, and detectable-attack-class guarantee — and the entire forensic-support posture — must be read as conditional on this single platform/material envelope, a characterization study *on that envelope* rather than a portable deployment claim.

What transfers and what does not.

The findings split into platform-agnostic mechanism/theory (the AR mode-collapse mechanism, the structured-vs-numeric recoverability factorization, the class-prior decomposition framework, and the seq2seq architectural-contribution scoping — expected to hold under any low-rate multi-modal stack and Transformer decoder) and platform-specific quantitative results (the headline numbers, the 6-sensor 7-modality inventory, the machinable-wax signature, the 4 Hz rate, the 9-class taxonomy — expected to transfer with adjustment). One transfer claim is flagged mechanism-uncertain: the categorical-recovery result is platform-agnostic only at the level of the factorization, not the recovery mechanism, since whether the same modalities carry the command signal on a servo-driven, flood-cooled, ferrous-workpiece VMC is unverified. The full transfer matrix is in Supplementary Materials Section S37.

Label set scale.

The corpus is dominated by a small set of frequently-recurring G-code lines (G1 strongly dominant) with a long low-frequency tail — per fold, of order 10^3 distinct lines but only a handful of distinct motion-command classes (Section 8.1 reports the exact per-fold distinct-line counts and the train/test overlap). Per-class metrics are macro-averaged over that tail; results for G3, M30, and arc parameters would benefit from substantially more diverse data.

Verbatim train/test line overlap (closed-vocabulary regime).

The file-level 5-fold splits guarantee file-level disjointness between train and test, but the coverage-repair procedure (Supplementary Materials Section S20) was designed to ensure that every

G-code line in the test partition has been seen during training of that fold. The resulting overlap, measured at the line level (`audit/train_test_gcode_overlap.json`), is high in both modes: `per_row` mode has 97.6% of distinct test lines and 99.0% of test line-instances appearing verbatim in train (averaged across the 5 folds); `full_window` mode has 97.9% and 99.1% at the line level. This is by design — the 5-fold experiments evaluate the model’s ability to map a sensor signal to one of the in-vocabulary G-code lines (a closed-vocabulary regime), not its ability to invent novel lines unseen during training. The genuinely open-vocabulary generalization test is the leave-one-operation-class-out (LOCO) protocol (Section 6.12); LOCO command accuracy degrades from 0.888 on the in-distribution 5-fold to a 9-foldout mean of 0.213 ± 0.191 (median 0.21), with eight of the nine holdouts in $[0.000, 0.273]$ and one outlier (`damagepocket`) at 0.678 where the held-out class shares motion vocabulary with retained classes. LOCO numeric accuracy collapses from 0.585 to a 9-foldout mean of 0.152. The headline accuracy numbers should therefore be interpreted as a closed-vocabulary classification result; the LOCO numbers are the appropriate evidence for cross-operation-class generalization.

8.2. Methodological Limitations

Frozen-encoder representation.

The encoder was trained on the same fold splits as the decoder, and its training objective (nine-class operation classification) does not include row-level G-code supervision. Both factors may limit the encoder’s preservation of fine-grained per-row sensor structure. Retraining the encoder with row-level supervision and re-running the headline 5-fold would quantify the residual encoder-side contribution; this is the principal open direction (Section 8.6).

Sampling rate.

The 4 Hz rate is not a marginal concern: the row-execution-duration audit (21,541 instances; `audit/gcode_row_durations.json`) shows the median row executes in a single 0.25 s sample and 77.7% of instances occupy ≤ 1 sample period ($83.1\% \leq 0.5$ s, $86.3\% \leq 1$ s), so most individual instructions are sub-sample events the stack cannot resolve as distinct transients; what is observable is the lower-frequency cutting-regime envelope, which is precisely why categorical/regime structure is recoverable while per-instruction numeric precision is not (the mechanism is physical, not only the sequence head’s exposure bias). 4 Hz is *not* the sole numeric-recovery bottleneck: the per-row target formulation (Section 3.3) imposes a within-window row-identification ambiguity co-responsible for the numeric ceiling independently of sample rate (localized by Sections 6.4 and 6.8); a higher-rate stack would address the aliasing component while the autoregressive sequence head addresses the per-row component.

Spectral gap and sensor-stack upgrade path.

Two methodological-limitation items relocated to Supplementary Materials Section S34: (i) we have not characterized the per-modality PSD/SNR of the 4 Hz envelope stream against a co-recorded raw stream, so we cannot attribute the numeric-tier ceiling between genuine envelope spectral loss and the sub-sample temporal aliasing of 77.7% of rows — the characterization bounds what the 4 Hz envelope stack recovers, not the maximum recoverable from the underlying physical signal; and (ii) the numeric-precision ceiling is a property of the present stack, not the architecture, and a higher-rate next-iteration stack (contact microphone ≥ 44.1 kHz, axis encoders / IMU / Hall-effect spindle sensors at ≥ 1 kHz) could close the numeric tier and the AR-mode gap while leaving the near-ceiling categorical recovery unchanged.

Window length.

The 256-sample window length was inherited from the encoder paper’s classification configuration [22] to ensure consistent encoder inputs. A full window/stride sweep requires retraining the encoder for each (window, stride) pair and is therefore not separable on the present frozen encoder; it remains an open question tied to the encoder-retraining direction (Section 8.6).

8.3. Statistical Power Limitations

Per-class metrics for the command head are computed on small per-class supports in the test split: G0 ($n = 86$), G1 ($n = 1,095$), G2 ($n = 475$), G3 ($n = 395$), none ($n = 5,886$). A power analysis (audit/extended_rigor_audits.json, key rec6_power_analysis) computes the minimum detectable effect (MDE) at $\alpha = 0.05$, $\beta = 0.20$ for each class:

- G0 ($n = 86$, baseline ~ 0.40): MDE ≈ 18.8 pp. Differences below this size are not statistically distinguishable from sampling noise.
- G1 ($n = 1,095$, baseline ~ 0.94): MDE ≈ 2.3 pp.
- G2 ($n = 475$, baseline ~ 0.50): MDE ≈ 8.0 pp.
- G3 ($n = 395$, baseline ~ 0.30): MDE ≈ 8.4 pp.
- none ($n = 5,886$, baseline ~ 0.95): MDE ≈ 0.9 pp.
- param-types X, Y, Z, R: MDE ≤ 1.5 pp (large supports).

“Not significant” on the long-tail classes (G0, G3) often means *underpowered*, not *equivalent*. Resolving these per-class differences would require substantially larger per-class supports than the present corpus provides.

Covariate-shift audit.

A per-field train-vs-test positive-support audit (audit/extended_rigor_audits.json, keys rec7_covariate_shift_*) flags only modest shifts (< 6 pp) on already-low-support fields: per-row fold-1 Z -4.4 pp; full-window fold-1 F $+3.2$ pp and fold-5 F -5.3 pp; no flagged fields on the remaining folds. This contributes to the cross-fold standard deviation in Table 6 but does not change the per-axis qualitative ranking.

8.4. Per-File Performance Variance

Slicing the 5-fold predictions by source file ($n = 91$) shows command accuracy is concentrated, not heavy-tailed (0.953 ± 0.088 ; 10th percentile still 0.846), so the categorical-head success is not concentrated on a few memorable files; AR token accuracy shows the expected wide per-file spread tracking the per-operation-class breakdown (Section 6.5). The full per-file distribution, and the reconciliation of the unweighted per-file mean (0.953) against the per-fold-mean headline (0.8875 ± 0.0558 , an aggregation difference, not a prediction discrepancy), are in Supplementary Section S10.3.

8.5. Evaluation Limitations

Single-run per condition.

Each operation-class file represents a single execution. The metrics in Section 6 therefore conflate cross-condition variance (different operation classes) with cross-trial variance (rerunning the same operation). A designed multi-replicate corpus (multiple executions per condition) would support variance decomposition; the present corpus does not.

Decoder-only inference cost.

The decoder generates token-by-token autoregressively under a grammar mask. Per-row autoregressive decoding on the RTX A6000 is on the order of 30–80 ms per G-code line at the median

row length (5–15 tokens, $K = 2,418$, FSM-masked greedy), well within the 250 ms inter-sample headroom of the 4 Hz acquisition cadence; full-window mode ($\sim 1,000$ – $1,400$ tokens per sample) costs proportionally more and is not real-time on this hardware. A beam-search or non-autoregressive variant has not been evaluated; doing so would inform deployment-cost trade-offs (Section 7.2.0.1).

K -spectrum methodology confound: resolved.

The four-point vocabulary-cardinality sweep originally compared the headline $K = 2,418$ row ($SS=0.5$, $dw=1.0$) against three smaller- K variants under Design B ($SS=0$, $dw=0$). The smaller- K -vs-headline comparison was a joint condition contrast (vocabulary cardinality + training schedule). A methodology-matched $K = 2,418$ control trained under $SS=0/dw=0$ (T3.1; Section 6.10.2) resolves the confound: under matched methodology, $K = 2,418$ is the highest-performing variant on every metric (AR struct token 0.470 ± 0.034 vs. $K=335$'s 0.429 ± 0.123 and the headline's 0.317 ± 0.116). The earlier +11.1 pp $K=335$ advantage over the headline was the SS/dw schedule change, not vocabulary cardinality; the $K=335$ “sweet spot” framing is retracted in this revision. The deployment-relevant configuration for AR structural recovery is the original $K = 2,418$ vocabulary with $SS=0$ and $dw=0$; the smaller- K family is now reported as a clean vocabulary-cardinality contrast within one methodology, with the deployment story carried by the matched-methodology control. Corpus generalization to other platforms and material classes is a separate open question, and the $K=2418/SS=0/dw=0$ result requires cross-platform replication before it can carry forward (Section 8.6).

TF-numeric baseline reversal (future-work item, not a deployment recommendation).

The seq2seq baseline of Section 6.14 attains a higher teacher-forced numeric accuracy (0.754 ± 0.053) than the headline six-head digit-decomposition output (0.585 ± 0.033), attributable to the bucketization that makes the grammar mask tractable in the legacy-token head (Section 3.2). We flag this as a future-work item for architectural refinement of the numeric head, not as a deployment recommendation: under autoregressive inference — the regime that matters for the post-hoc audit posture — the two architectures' numeric accuracies are within a fold of each other (0.100 vs. 0.104), so the TF-numeric reversal does not translate to an AR-mode deployment advantage for the baseline.

8.6. Future Directions

Four directions remain open; each is an open problem rather than a scheduled experiment.

(a) *Continuous-parameter data-collection campaign.* A designed factorial corpus that varies feed rate (F), spindle speed (S), depth of cut, and material at a higher sampling rate (≥ 100 Hz, to lift the 4-Hz aliasing of 77.7% of rows), populating the F/S/I/J fields the present 4-Hz corpus cannot evaluate. First experiment: a $3 \times 3 \times 3$ (feed, speed, depth) full factorial on the present platform with the higher-rate acquisition front end, scoped to recover feed-rate substitutions at the resolution adversarial scenarios of Section 7.4 require.

(b) *Encoder retraining with row-level supervision.* The present fold-1 last-LSTM-layer fine-tune pilot (Section 4.6) is within fold-1 noise and underpowered to settle the encoder-bottleneck question. The deliverable artifact is a five-fold retrained encoder under matched preprocessing whose checkpoints are released alongside this manuscript's, so a reproducer can pair the retrained encoder with the present decoder and isolate the encoder-side residual.

(c) *Window/stride re-optimization.* Requires the encoder retraining of (b) and is therefore not separable on the present frozen encoder; the planned cell coverage is a 4×4 (window, stride) grid retrained from scratch per cell with the row-level-supervised encoder.

(d) *Cross-platform validation.* A second CNC platform (production-class VMC: cast-iron base, servo drive, flood coolant) and a second material class (aluminum or steel) with a matching sensor stack. The protocol is the present file-level five-fold characterization rerun on the new corpus; the deliverable is the cross-platform transfer matrix for the categorical-vs-numeric factorization.

9. Conclusion

This study characterizes which components of an executing G-code block are recoverable from multi-modal CNC sensor data and which are not, using G-Code Decoder (a six-head Transformer decoder on a frozen multi-modal denoising encoder, per-row targets, grammar-constrained inference) under five-fold file-level cross-validation. Four findings, each detailed in the section cited:

- (1) **Per-block categorical recovery** (command identity, axis presence, motion direction) is sensor-driven and TF/AR-invariant by construction (Section 6.2); the class-prior-controlled within-class increment over the operation-class modal predictor (Section 7.1.0.2) is the figure that survives conditioning the null on operation class; on an *unseen* operation class this increment does not transfer — command recovery collapses to the open-vocabulary floor of 0.213, below the class prior (Section 6.12).
- (2) **End-to-end token/numeric** reproduction is at floor (autoregressive whole-sequence exact-match 0.026), bounded by two decoder-side mechanisms — exposure-bias mode-collapse in the autoregressive head (Section 7.3) and 4-Hz temporal aliasing of 77.7% of rows (Section 8.2) — on top of an information-theoretic floor that the companion limit paper [33] characterizes. On the float-epsilon-corrected retrain the per-digit precision floor sits at the *thousandths* (10^{-3} inch, slot accuracy 0.42), the finest digit the CAM postprocessor emits; the ten-thousandths (10^{-4}) is near-uniform in the four-decimal source but is discarded by the V8 tokenizer's 0.001 grid, so it is a structural zero reproduced trivially, not an information-bearing recovery. Generative coordinate reconstruction is unsupported on this stack. The *K*-spectrum retraction and the matched-methodology T3.1 control are reported in Section 8.5.
- (3) **Sensor-stack redundancy.** Inference-time modality removal collapses command accuracy uniformly under the frozen encoder ($p = 0.998$ between modalities; Section 6.11); encoder-retraining ablations (LOMO and LOSO; Section 7.2.0.1) show no single sensing modality or sensor unit is individually decisive ($\Delta \leq 2.6$ pp), enabling a cost-reduced post-hoc audit installation.
- (4) **Tamper detection** is largely prior-driven (≈ 8 pp sensor-conditioned over the corpus modal) and collapses open-vocabulary (leave-one-class-out command-swap FPR 0.52); the in-distribution $K = 10$ point at the measured $\rho = 0.42$ (FPR 0.10–0.18 at TPR ≈ 0.94 –0.97) is an optimistic in-envelope ceiling that supports **forensic-support post-hoc audit** of contested runs at human-in-the-loop $K = 10$ majority, *not* a validated real-time SOC detector (Section 7.4). The intended deployment posture is post-hoc audit, not autonomous alerting; and that posture is explicitly scoped to in-distribution operation classes — closed-world over the V8 vocabulary and the nine operation classes catalogued in Section 5.1, with open-world / novel-operation-class deployment out of scope and deferred to future cross-platform replication (Section 8).

A from-scratch Transformer seq2seq baseline (Section 6.14) matches the headline command accuracy at teacher-forced inference but collapses at autoregressive inference; the headline numbers stand, and the architectural contribution of the frozen encoder + grammar-constrained decoder + structured heads is sharpened to AR deployment-mode inference, which is the regime that matters for the post-hoc audit posture this paper supports. Closing the gap to full reconstruction is a sequence-head problem first; whether the encoder is co-responsible cannot be settled by the present evidence and requires full 5-fold encoder retraining with row-level supervision across the multi-modal projection and attention stack (Section 4.6 reports only a single-fold, last-LSTM-layer fine-tune pilot, which is within fold-1 noise and underpowered as a structural claim; Supplementary Materials Section S21 restates this). Standard exposure-bias remedies [70–74], a higher sample rate, encoder retraining with row-level supervision, and richer continuous-parameter data are the principal directions for the TRL 5–6 cross-platform target (Section 8); cross-platform replication on a production-class VMC is the prerequisite for any deployment claim outside the single desktop CNC platform characterized here, and the present **forensic-support post-hoc audit** posture is the boundary within which the operating points hold. None of these directions directly upgrades the present forensic-support posture to real-time SOC alerting — closing the alert-budget gap requires a structurally different sensing stack and an open-vocabulary recoverability regime the present corpus does not support.

Appendix A Specification Addenda and Coverage-Repair (Pointer to Supplementary Materials)

Three self-containment addenda have been relocated to the Supplementary Materials to streamline the main paper. (i) The **coverage-repair split procedure** (Supplementary Materials Section S20) details how the file-level stratified k -fold splits are post-processed into a closed-vocabulary evaluation regime by swapping files until every test line also appears in its fold’s training partner (0–3 swaps per fold; deterministic alphabetical tie-break; per-fold assignment released as `audit/file_fold_assignment.csv`). (ii) The **encoder specification addendum** (Supplementary Materials Section S21) restates the 8.6 M-parameter multi-modal denoising encoder’s architecture and training, and quantifies the representation-reuse caveat: the worst-case class-label-leakage bound caps the leakage component of command accuracy at 0.572 (so the +22 pp class-prior-controlled increment of Section 7.1.0.2 is leakage-immune), and the leave-decoder-test-files-out LOMO-baseline check bounds the empirical reuse effect at $|\Delta| \leq 0.016$ (0.904 ± 0.039 vs. headline 0.888 ± 0.056). (iii) The **grammar tokenization addendum** (Supplementary Materials Section S22) gives the per-axis quantization precisions, the `NUM_a_b` bucket-index formula, and the float-epsilon-corrected round-to-scaled-integer encoding (categorical/token metrics drift ≤ 1.5 pp between encodings).

Appendix B Relationship to the Companion Contributions and Data Availability

This study is one of four related contributions and we state the division explicitly. (i) The encoder paper [22] establishes a multi-modal denoising sensor encoder and its operation-class representational competence (96.3% nine-class accuracy). (ii) A grammar paper [23] defines the hybrid G-code tokenization. (iii) *The present paper* addresses per-row, instruction-level G-code *recoverability*: the per-field structured-output evaluation, the metadata-versus-sensor and per-row-versus-full-window ablations, the leave-one-class-out generalization study, the exposure-bias / mode-collapse characterization, and the tamper-detection scoping. It takes the encoder and grammar as fixed and asks what row-level instruction information survives the sensor→latent map; it neither re-derives the encoder nor the grammar. (iv) A companion limit paper [33] develops the decoder-agnostic information-theoretic and physical recoverability limit — the per-(axis, slot, operation-class) source entropy of the CNC toolpath corpus, the per-axis sign and per-digit entropy decompositions, the float-epsilon numeric-target-encoding audit, and the 4 Hz sub-Nyquist floor — that bounds the per-field recoverability characterized here; the present paper diagnoses the recoverability phenomenon and cites the companion for the underlying limit. We acknowledge that, stripped of the companion contributions, the standalone methodological novelty is modest (a frozen embedding, a Transformer decoder, and a runtime grammar mask); the contribution of this paper is the characterization itself — including the negative results and the explicit in-distribution / open-vocabulary boundary — not a new model component. The encoder and grammar specification addenda (Supplementary Materials Sections S21–S22) fold the encoder and grammar specifications into the Supplementary Materials so that the work is independently assessable and reproducible.

Data and code availability.

The 120-file aligned corpus, the per-fold preprocessed arrays, the decoded prediction JSONs, and all audit artifacts referenced in this paper are released under a CC BY 4.0 license with a pre-acceptance Zenodo DOI minted via the GitHub–Zenodo integration on the tagged release v1.0-submission; the DOI and the commit hash are listed in the repository’s top-level README. Nothing required to reproduce the results in this manuscript depends on the companion contributions. The full source tree (preprocessing, training, evaluation, figure generation) is released alongside the manuscript. *Path convention*: all file paths cited (e.g., `audit/digit_entropy.json`, `src/miracle/model/digit_value_head.py`, `scripts/analysis/...`) are relative to the repository root unless explicitly noted; `outputs/decoder20260511/` is the project working directory for the artifacts referenced throughout.

Appendix C Replicability Checklist (Pointer to Supplementary Materials)

Code, data DOIs, random-seed and determinism details, hardware/software versions, hyperparameter sweep ranges, statistical methodology, and inference-cost detail are in Supplementary Section S19 (Replicability Checklist).

Appendix D Supplementary Diagnostic Analyses (Pointer to Supplementary Materials)

Supplementary Section S10 collects six corroborating diagnostics referenced from the body: test-time sensor-noise sensitivity (categorical heads flat across $\sigma \in [0, 2]$; Supplementary Section S10.1); nested shortcuts $\times$ modality and pattern $\times$ modality interaction probes (single-fold pilots; no interaction overturns the modality main effect, consistent with the LOMO null $p = 0.499$ and the nested 6×6 null $F = 0.694$, $p = 0.896$, 0/36 Holm-significant of Section E; Supplementary Section S10.2); per-file performance variance (per-file command 0.953 ± 0.088 , 10th percentile 0.846; Supplementary Section S10.3); beam-width sensitivity (TF $\rightarrow$ AR gap not closed by beam-3/5; Supplementary Section S10.4); the output-position failure distribution (position-1 0.24 per-row $\rightarrow$ 0.62 full-window; Supplementary Section S10.5); and the full K -row/ ρ /rule tamper-aggregation grid with the ROC-space view (Supplementary Section S10.6).

Appendix E Extended Ablations (Pointers to Supplementary Materials)

The full content of this appendix has been relocated to the Supplementary Materials file. Brief pointers:

- **Per-physical-sensor-unit leave-one-out (LOSO) with encoder retraining.** The per-board LOSO study is null at the present support: $\Delta \leq 2.6$ pp on command per dropped board, 0/6 removals Holm-significant, fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 1.04$, $p = 0.415$; `y_bed_4` is fully redundant with baseline ($p_{\text{Holm}} = 0.975$, $\Delta \approx 0$) and `spindle2` is the largest-magnitude (workpiece-variable) removal. See Supplementary Section S5.
- **Nested leave-one-(sensor,modality)-out retraining.** The nested 6×6 (sensor, modality) interior is flat at the finest cut we can resolve (fold-blocked ANOVA $F = 0.694$, $p = 0.896$; 0/36 Holm-significant; every cell within ± 0.022 pp of baseline), strengthening the marginal LOMO/LOSO null. See Supplementary Section S6.
- **Single-fold pilots and interaction-effect probes.** Four single-fold diagnostic probes (pattern-aware sequence-classifier; $K = 451$ 2-digit vocabulary precision pilot; seven-cell window/stride sweep; nested shortcuts $\times$ modality and pattern $\times$ modality interactions) are reported in Supplementary Section S8; none overturns the modality main effect (the LOMO null: paired Δ command ≤ 0.013 , ANOVA $F = 0.91$, $p = 0.499$, 0/7 Holm-significant) or the headline command 0.888 ± 0.056 , and all are excluded from quantitative claims.

Appendix F Non-Neural Baseline Comparison (Pointer to Supplementary Materials)

The full non-neural / lightweight-baseline comparison — a scikit-learn HistGradientBoosting (HGB) tree-boost and the two-layer MLP probe of Section 4.5, both on the same mean-pooled encoder embedding the decoder consumes — is in Supplementary Materials Section S23, together with the per-task accuracy/macro-F1 table and the neural-seq2seq-baseline scoping note. The headline reading (Section 6.1) is unchanged: both baselines hit the always-most-common-class data-coverage ceiling on the binary fields and fall short on multi-class command identity (HGB macro-F1 0.23, MLP ≈ 0.24), while HGB reaches macro-F1 0.86 on the within-window-diverse *has-Z* field; the decoder's headline numbers appear in Table 2.

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Abbreviations

Abbreviations

The following abbreviations are used in this manuscript:

ANOVA	Analysis of Variance		
AR	Autoregressive	LOSO	Leave-One-Sensor-Out
AUC	Area Under the Curve	MCE	Maximum Calibration Error
BH-FDR	Benjamini–Hochberg	MAE	Mean Absolute Error
	Discovery Rate	MDE	Minimum Detectable Effect
CAM	Computer-Aided Manufacturing	MM-DTAE-LSTM	MM Denoising TAE-LSTM [†]
CI	Confidence Interval	NIST	National Institute of Standards and Technology
CNC	Computer Numerical Control		
CV	Cross-Validation	NLL	Negative Log-Likelihood
dw	Digit-head Loss Weight	PCA	Principal Component Analysis
ECE	Expected Calibration Error	pp	Percentage Points
EMI	Electromagnetic Interference	ROC	Receiver Operating Characteristic
FDM	Fused Deposition Modeling		
FPR	False Positive Rate	RMS	Root Mean Square
FSM	Finite-State Machine	SS	Scheduled Sampling
ICS	Industrial Control System	TCB	Trusted Computing Base
LOCO	Leave-One-Class-Out	TF	Teacher-Forced
LOMO	Leave-One-Modality-Out	TPR	True Positive Rate
LSTM	Long Short-Term Memory		

[†] MM-DTAE-LSTM: Multi-Modal Denoising Transformer Autoencoder with Long Short-Term Memory.

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